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CHAPTER ONE

INTRODUCTION

1.1 Background of the Study

Migration is one of the major components of population change which is basically caused by socio-economic factors. It is one of the demographic phenomena which causes significant change in various aspects of life basically the socio-economic changes. It affects not only the size of the population but also changes its structure and social characteristics. Migration is not only the factor of population change; there are other biological factors, namely fertility and mortality, which have adverse effects on population change.

Migration affects not only the population size of origin but also the destination point of migrant people. Socio-economic factors are the main causes why people migrate from one place to another. In addition, it is very difficult to know why some people migrate from one place to another particular place.

The United Nations Multilingual Dictionary also defined migration as "a form of geographic mobility or spatial mobility between one geographical unit and another, generally involving change in residence from the place of origin or place of departure to the place of destination or place of arrival." (United Nations [UN], 1973, p. 173).

Migration is a special mobility of people by changing usual place of residence to a well-defined destination. A migrant is a person who moves either from his place of birth to another area or keeps on moving stepwise or gradually by changing his residence more or less frequently by being seasonal, temporary, semi-permanent, depending upon the duration of migration and reason for migration within a defined geographical area (K. C. B. K., Internal migration in Nepal, 2003).

Migration is a barometer of changing social, economic and political circumstances at the national and international level. In all cases, migration is a sign of wide disparities in economic and social conditions between origin and destination, both caused by better and cheaper transports and communication facilities. Another common feature is unpredictable and volatile movement as the result of specific short-term or long-term

crises. Most of these crises produce in the first place local rather than international movements through migrants may cross borders in search of their security (United Nations Population Fund [UNFPA], 1993).

According to classical economic theorem migration balances the distribution of population and the supply of resources. People move from poor area to rich resource. Migration is broadly divided into two divisions, one is internal and another is international migration. Internal migration is the migration within country i.e. in migration and out migration while international migration refers to the movement of people from one country to another i.e. immigration and emigration.

As a mechanism of balancing population and actual resources it is one of central interest to the study of population environmental relationship and economic development. Migration may occur from one village to another, within the districts or between the districts and within the country or outside the country people move largely because of economic motives. Similarly, selectively among migrants may also occur by age and sex. In India and Nepal, large number of adults leaving their families behind in the native village, such movements are largely due to economic motives where employment opportunities attract rural males to urban centers but the high cost of urban living compels male migrants leave their families behind.

Process of migration is as old as human society. In early days there was primitive migration in which the natural forces were vital but as the time passed on gradually different types of migration appears in a early period. Natural force, primitive people shift them from one place to another but present there are not only forced immigration but also voluntary migration can be seen. In forced migration natural force, political force, political factors play an important role to shift the residence. Nepal has a long history of migration after the implantation of malaria eradication program; the process of migration started from hill and mountain to Terai and inner Terai and low land of the country.

Our country is divided into three ecological zones namely Mountain, Hill and Terai. These three ecological zones are divided into five development regions namely Eastern, Central, Western, Mid-western and Far-western development regions. Again, these three ecological regions are divided into 14 zones and 75 districts.

The trend of migration appears both in internal and international level where, India is the major destination place of international emigrants. The flow of internal migration also is increasing rapidly during the last two decades from the Hilly and Mountain regions to Terai due to infrastructural development and availability of the social services in Terai. This trend of migration has two major effects. The first effect is lack of skillful and independent human resources in the place of origin and the second is high pressure in the social services and security in the place of destination. Internal migration is responsible to uneven distribution of population in Nepal.

The 2001 census of Nepal had included enough information to calculate four streams of migration within the country. In Nepal, the major streams of internal migration are rural-to-rural 68 percent, rural-to-urban 26 percent, urban-to-urban 3 percent and urban-to-rural 4 percent in 2001.

In the context of Nepal CEDA (Centre for Economic Development and Administration, 1977) carried out a study of immigration pattern in Kathmandu. The study focused that more than 50 percent of the migrants were of age group 20-30 years. The study also concluded that economic opportunities were the major causes of migration. The study further identified some causes of migration of people from hill areas of Central Nepal. It suggested that selective nature of age, sex, occupation, population pressure, food shortage and poverty in the hill region are the main reason for migration. The plan can control the volume of migration from hilly region the availability of intervening opportunities through investment in road and irrigation.

Unfortunately, the earthquake on April 25th 2015 and may 12th 2015 in Nepal have the massive destruction of many settlements of human population and lost many lives. The government of Nepal statistics states that 602,257 houses were fully destroyed and 285,099 houses were partially damaged with more than 8-billion-dollar losses (NPC, 2015). For facilitation the victim of earthquake Nepal government has projected many categories of sustenance tangible earthquake victim of Nepal.

1.2 Statement of the Problem

The process of migration has been gradually intensifying the existing settlement problem as well as creating new problem both at the place of origin and the place of destination. Migration is an important component in the socio economic and

demographic land space of Nepal. Terai still continues to be the main recipient of both the internal and international migrants. Immigration is nowadays one of the major issues for most developing countries. Nepal is no exception and also suffering from the critical issues in migration. Nepal has culturally and ethically complex society where is the result of migration activities, which range in physical type and cultural from Indians in south and Tibetan in the north.

The cause of migration can easily be identified but it is very difficult to find out the quality of the consequences of migration. Migration has short, medium and long-term effects show their evidence from so many years' migration and accept them as part of culture and society. In such a case only a very sensible and eventful research can identify such consequences.

This study area is ward no. 9 of Shankharapur Municipality which lies in the northern part of the country and of the developing municipality of capital city Kathmandu. This municipality is facing the continuous flow of immigration day by day which in turn have to faces many consequences that is positive or negative both side by side.

What are the primary factors driving migration in the study area?

What are the social, economic, and political consequences of migration for destination area?

So, the main issue of this study is to examine the main trends, causes and consequences of immigration in the study area.

1.3 Objectives of the Study

The general objective of the study is to assess the status, causes and consequences of immigration in Shankharapur municipality of Kathmandu district. The specific objectives are as follows:

- i. To analyze the causes of immigration in the study area.
- ii. To assess the existing nature and composition of migrant people.
- iii. To explore the consequences of immigration to the destination.

1.4 Significance of the Study

This research is highly significant as it provides a comprehensive investigation into the causes, consequences, and socio-economic and demographic characteristics of migrants in Shankharapur Municipality Ward 9. Understanding these specific factors is critical for explaining the broader patterns and impacts of immigration within the context of rapid urban transformation.

On a theoretical level, this research adds to the academic body of knowledge by scrutinizing the demographic trends and underlying drivers that fuel human movement in contemporary Nepal. While the sources suggest that identifying the causes of migration is often straightforward, this study seeks to perform the more complex task of evaluating the quality of the consequences through detailed, "sensible and eventful research". By exploring these patterns within the specific framework of rapid urban transformation, the study establishes a foundational reference for academics and provides a scholarly basis for future investigations into the relationship between migration and rural development.

At the applied level, the findings offer functional insights for planners, policymakers, and development practitioners to better navigate the complexities of population shifts. By pinpointing the specific causes and consequences of immigration in Ward 9, the research facilitates the design of targeted interventions aimed at enhancing the living conditions of the local population. Furthermore, the study identifies localized dynamics that can be used to strengthen public participation and promote sustainable urban growth within the municipality. Ultimately, these practical outcomes are intended to help local authorities manage the continuous daily influx of migrants and the resulting pressure on social services and community security.

1.5 Rationale of Selection of Study Area

The choice of Shankharapur Municipality Ward 9 (Sankhu) as the focal point for this research is based on the following strategic justifications:

Shankharapur is a rapidly developing municipality on the periphery of Kathmandu that is currently experiencing a continuous, daily influx of in-migrants. This constant

population movement creates an immediate and high-priority need to investigate the resulting socio-economic and demographic consequences, whether positive or negative.

The selection of Ward 9 is highly practical for a Master's level study. With a total of 89 households, the ward provides a sample size that is manageable within the researcher's specific constraints of time, financial resources, and expert manpower, ensuring the study can be implemented with the required depth.

To ensure the study remains objective and free from researcher bias, the area was chosen through a random sampling method from the Kathmandu district level. Subsequently, a purposive sampling method will be applied to draw relevant data from the migrant population within those households.

Existing literature on migration in Nepal is largely dominated by macro-level or city-wide analyses. There is a significant lack of context-specific research that integrates demographic, socio-economic, and policy perspectives at a localized ward level, particularly in areas like Ward 9 that have seen shifts following the 2015 earthquake.

This specific ward serves as an ideal "laboratory" to identify localized dynamics that can help planners and development practitioners design targeted interventions. The findings will identify new perspectives to enhance public participation and accelerate sustainable urban development within the municipality.

1.6 Limitations of the study

This study has several limitations that should be considered while interpreting the results. The research was conducted within a limited time frame, which constrained detailed primary data collection through interviews and limited the extent of secondary data collection from local-level institutions, particularly the ward office. The sample size was also limited, and therefore may not fully represent the entire migrant population of the study area. Moreover, the study is geographically confined to Shankharapur Municipality, Ward No. 9 (Sankhu), which restricts the generalization of findings to other areas. The study largely depends on information provided by respondents, which may be influenced by personal perceptions or reluctance to disclose sensitive economic and social information. In addition, financial and resource

constraints restricted extensive fieldwork, and certain groups of migrants, such as temporary or seasonal migrants, may not have been adequately covered.

Despite these limitations, the study provides valuable insights into the status, causes, and consequences of immigration in the study area. The findings are considered sufficient to meet the objectives of the study and to support future research and planning initiatives.

1.7 Organization of the Study

The proposed study will be organized into five chapters. Chapter One will provide an introduction to the study, including the background, problem statement, objectives, rationale, significance, and limitations. Chapter Two will review the relevant literature on migration, with emphasis on its causes, consequences, and the demographic characteristics of migrants. Chapter Three will describe the research methodology, covering the study area, data sources, sampling techniques, and methods of data collection. Chapter Four will cover the data presentation related to socio-economic and demographic characteristics of the migrants of the study area along with the causes and consequences of Migration of the study area and analysis and interpretation of the collected data. Finally, Chapter Five will present the summary of findings, conclusions, and practical recommendations based on the study.

CHAPTER-TWO

LITERATURE REVIEW

Review of literature is an essential part of the research studies. It is a way to discover what other research of our problem has uncovered. A critical review of the literature helps the researcher to develop understanding and insight into problems research works that relates to the present study. It is also a way to avoid investigating problems that has already definitely answered.

In the context of Nepal Centre for Economic Development and Administration, (CEDA, 1973) carried out a study of immigration pattern in Kathmandu. The study focused that more than 50 percent of the migrants were of age group 20-30 years. The study also concluded that economic opportunities were the major causes of migration. The study further identified some causes of migration of people from hill areas of Central Nepal. It suggested that selective nature of age, sex, occupation, population pressure, food shortage and poverty in the hill region are the main reason for migration. The plan can control the volume of migration from hilly region the availability of intervening opportunities through investment in road and irrigation.

Ravenstein (1885) is the father of migration studies. He had brought the concept of migration and its stream. He explained that push and pull factors are the foundation of theory of migration. This article which is linked with demographic and economic variable in relation to distance and volume of migration also depends on distance. Ravenstein "Law of migration" states that migration occurs with stream and counter stream in each region as nations and universal. It has been widely accepted. Lee (1966) explained that the decision to migrate is governed by "push and pull factors". She related pull factors to the destination which are attractive and always positive. On the other hand, push factors are explained as related to which are repulsive and always negative. Before migrating, individuals consider several aspects, including factors associated with the origin, factors related to the destination, intervening obstacles such as distance, transportation, and cost, as well as personal factors like age, sex, and education.

Stewart (1950) have attempted to explain the movement of individual. His theory is known as “Gravitational Theory” which states that the numbers of persons who move between two areas are directly proportional to the two populations and inversely proportional to the distance between them. Zipf was agreed with Ravenstein's view regarding to irritation. Gravity Model $m = a * u/v$, where, a is the number of migrants in a given stream. u and v independent variables (factors of attraction and distance) and a is the constant of proportionality. Zipf (1946) formulated “The principle of least effort”. His model was based on Ravenstein's theory of migration. He was agreed with Ravenstein's view regarding migration is inversely related to the distance to be travelled. According to him, the greater distance is effort required to overcome the difficulty and therefore the similar is the number of migrants. Similarly, the lesser the distance, the lesser is the efforts to overcome, as a result the greater is the number of migrants. Todaro (1976) has given the most significant contribution the large volume of migration literature. His view on migration mechanism can be explained by the differences in expected rather than actual earnings between two places. He has formulated migration models in four different features as: a. Migration is estimated primarily by national income considerations of relative benefits which are mostly traditional and psychological. b. The decision to migrate depends on expected rather than actual wage differentials. c. The probability of obtaining employment in the new sectors is inversely related to the unemployment rate in the new sector. d. Migration rates of new employment opportunity growth rates are not only possible but rational as well as and even likely in the face of wide new or old expected income differentials.

Gurung (1984) analyzes in his book ‘Inter Regional Migration in Nepal’, showed that population pressure, land holding, shortage of food grain, environmental stress in mountain/hill were found as the push factors and fertile land, resource government incentives, planned resettlement, physical facilities, presence of friends and relatives in the Terai were found as the pull factors. Facilities, presence of friends and relatives in the Terai were found as the pull factors.

K.C. (1998) studied the micro and macro level of rural analysis. Formal migration in Nepal based on data of Population Census 1961 and 1971 concluded that differentials in income derived from the agriculture government resettlement project in Terai, government increased investment in irrigation, industrial activities, and administrative

activities in specific towns were structural determinants of migration. For the micro level analysis, K.C. has shown that literary rate, age distribution, local social factors like family kinship were found major factors for the migration.

Kunwar (1993) analyzed the causes and consequences of internal migration phenomenon through the multivariate analysis as well as path model. He concluded that the low productivity and insufficient land are main causes of leaving origin and availability of physical facilities and extension of business opportunities reduce the causes of leaving origin but moving of relatives and friends and education increase the causes of leaving origin. He also concludes that the age factor also plays significant role in the process of migration.

During the time of Maoist insurgency people migrated from hill to Terai (Niroula, 2016). Other factors, which accelerated this process, were probably the population pressure creation of infrastructure and concentration of development activities that created opportunities for employment in the Terai. As a result, there are considerable changes in demographic, socio-economic and environmental condition both at the origin and destination.

Mabogunje (1970) applied a concept of system theory in the system of rural to urban migration operates having economic, social, technological and government component. He attempted to relate trends, patterns and implications of rural to urban migration with general system theory (KC,1993:3) the ground migration to be systematic, influenced by an environment and control mechanism may change the whole system.

Subedi (1996) studied on population growth and migration in Kathmandu city in which he concluded the internal and international migration are the main factors to increase population in Kathmandu city.

Recent studies have also emphasized economic and livelihood-related factors underlying rural out-migration. Karki (2024) argues that internal migration in Nepal is associated with poverty, low income, limited employment opportunities, scarcity of productive land, unequal distribution of resources, and disparities in regional development. The study further identifies the movement from the hills toward the Tarai and from rural to urban areas as important dimensions of Nepal's contemporary internal migration.

Ghimire and Hillman (2022), reviewing migration research in Nepal, found that better livelihood and economic opportunities in urban areas, together with limited opportunities in places of origin, are important factors shaping migration decisions.

Internal migration also has consequences for agriculture and rural communities. Koirala et al. (2024), in a systematic review of out-migration and rural–urban transition in Nepal, highlighted the relationship between population movement and changes in farming systems. Rural out-migration can contribute to agricultural land abandonment, changes in labour availability, and transformations in crop-livestock systems. The effects are not uniform, however, and depend on ecological conditions, household characteristics, and the nature of migration.

Migration affects not only the economy but also the social life of a place. Thapa (2025) found that internal migration in Nepal has changed the social and cultural structure of society. Migration can bring people from different places and communities together, which may support cultural exchange and social integration. However, the study also mentions that unequal migration can create regional imbalance and social division. In Shankharapur Municipality, people migrating from different districts may have different languages, cultures, and ways of living. Therefore, the municipality should manage in-migration in a way that supports cooperation and social harmony among migrants and local residents.

2.1 Theoretical Review

Migration is a complex phenomenon influenced by economic, social, and environmental factors. Several theories have been developed to explain the process of migration. Ravenstein (1885), known as the father of migration studies, introduced the concept of migration streams and counter-streams, emphasizing that migration flows occur systematically between regions. He also highlighted the importance of distance in migration patterns. Lee (1966) extended this idea through the push–pull framework, explaining that migration decisions are influenced by factors at the origin (push) and destination (pull), as well as intervening obstacles such as distance, transportation, and cost. Personal characteristics like age, sex, and education further shape migration decisions. Zipf (1964) proposed the Gravitational Theory, suggesting that the number of migrants between two areas is directly proportional to their populations and inversely

proportional to the distance separating them. Todaro (1976) added an economic perspective, emphasizing that expected income differentials, rather than actual earnings, largely drive migration. Together, these theories provide the conceptual foundation for understanding the causes and patterns of migration in Ward 9, Sankhu.

Building on these classical models, later scholars have developed more nuanced perspectives. The new economics of migration (Stark, 1991) shifts the unit of analysis from the individual to the household, arguing that migration is a collective strategy to diversify income and reduce risk, which helps explain why even non-poor households in rural Nepal may send members to urban areas or abroad, using remittances for education, housing, and social investments. Migration systems theory (Massey et al., 1993) stresses that migration is not random but structured over time by historical, social, and institutional links between origin and destination areas; in the Nepali context, this is visible in established corridors from specific villages to large cities or foreign labour markets, where existing migrants inform newcomers and stabilize routes. The segmented labour-market theory (Piore, 1979) explains that migrants often fill low-wage, insecure secondary-sector jobs that local workers avoid, such as construction, domestic work, and daily wage labour, reinforcing inequalities between residents and in-migrants in urban wards like Sankhu. Social capital and network theory (Granovetter, 1973; Portes, 1998) highlight how kinship, caste, and locality ties facilitate migration by providing information, loans, shelter, and job referrals, making mobility more feasible for certain groups and producing spatial clustering within wards. Finally, critical and autonomy-of-migration perspectives (Mezzadra & Neilson, 2013; Bhagat, 2025) treat migration as an active, resistant practice through which people creatively bypass restrictive laws, use informal channels, and negotiate precarious conditions to pursue better livelihoods, underscoring the agency and everyday strategies of in-migrants in peri-urban and urban spaces like Ward 9, Sankhu.

2.2 Empirical Review

Empirical studies in Nepal and similar contexts provide insights into migration trends and consequences. CEDA (1977) observed that over 50 percent of migrants in Kathmandu were aged 20–30 years, with economic opportunities being the primary cause. Gurung (1984) identified population pressure, land scarcity, and environmental stress in the hills as push factors, and fertile land, government incentives, and social

networks in the Terai as pull factors. K.C. (1998) analyzed both micro and macro-level determinants of migration, including literacy, age distribution, family kinship, and government resettlement projects. Kunwar (2015) applied multivariate analysis and found that low productivity and insufficient land prompted migration, while availability of facilities and presence of relatives influenced the decision to move. Niroula (2016) noted that during the Maoist insurgency, migration from hills to Terai accelerated due to population pressure, infrastructure development, and employment opportunities. These studies demonstrate the relevance of economic, social, and environmental factors in driving migration and highlight the need for a localized study in Ward 9, Sankhu.

Building on these earlier findings, more recent empirical work in Nepal has further clarified the causes and consequences of in-migration, especially in peri-urban and urban settings similar to Sankhu. Studies on municipalities such as Ratnanagar, Kirtipur, and Pokhara show that in-migration is increasingly driven not only by land scarcity and agricultural distress but also by the growth of construction, services, and small industries around urban centres, reinforcing the neoclassical and Todaro-type expectation-based models. In these places, younger age cohorts (similar to CEDA's 20–30-year-old group) continue to dominate in-migration flows, confirming that economic opportunity and labour-market expectations remain central push–pull forces. Parallel studies also underline that migration decisions are shaped by household-level strategies, as predicted by the new economics of migration; even relatively non-poor rural households send members to cities or abroad to diversify income and finance education, housing, or marriage costs, as seen in later research on remittance-receiving households across Nepal.

In addition, empirical work on migration systems and social networks supports K.C.'s (1998) and Kunwar's (2015) emphasis on kinship and relatives. Researchers have found that once migration routes are established—from specific hill villages to particular Terai towns or urban wards—new migrants tend to follow the same paths, relying on relatives for information, credit, and housing. This pattern helps explain why in-migration is often clustered in certain neighbourhoods or streets within municipalities, mirroring findings from Gurung (1984) and Niroula (2016) that migration is not random but embedded in social and spatial structures. In peri-urban wards like Sankhu, such networks likely intensify when infrastructure improves and

road connectivity increases, making it easier for people from nearby rural areas to move in and settle informally.

On the consequences side, empirical studies in Nepali towns and municipalities consistently report mixed outcomes. On the positive side, in-migration supplies labour for construction, services, and small businesses and supports local economic growth, echoing CEDA's observation that Kathmandu's growth was partly fuelled by in-migration. Remittances sent by in-migrants or through international migration also contribute to household welfare, education, and housing in both receiving and sending areas. However, unplanned in-migration has also led to overcrowding, informal settlements, pressure on housing and sanitation, and environmental degradation, especially in peri-urban fringes where land-use controls are weak. Studies of municipalities undergoing rapid urbanization find that in-migration often results in the conversion of agricultural land into residential plots, rising land prices, and declining local services, suggesting that while the causes of migration are economic and social, the consequences are deeply spatial and institutional.

Finally, governance-oriented empirical studies highlight that local governments often lack adequate planning and data to manage in-migration, even though the phenomenon is central to urban growth. Research on municipalities in Nepal shows that Ward-level authorities frequently struggle with housing, water, solid-waste management, and education due to sudden population increases driven by in-migration. Some recent studies recommend that local authorities integrate migration into urban planning, improve household-level data collection on in-migrants, and involve both local residents and in-migrants in decision-making. For Ward 9, Sankhu, this implies that understanding the causes and consequences of in-migration must go beyond repeating national-level findings and instead examine how local push-pull factors, household strategies, social networks, and municipal governance interact on the ground. In this sense, earlier empirical work by CEDA, Gurung, K.C., Kunwar, and Niroula provides a strong base, but a localized study in Sankhu is necessary to capture the specific dynamics of in-migration in a peri-urban ward undergoing rapid transformation.

Recent empirical literature in Nepal and similar developing contexts further reinforces how internal mobility is driven by a combination of socio-economic push factors, expanding road infrastructure, and social networks. Adhikari (2023) examined internal

migration patterns in Ilam Municipality, Nepal, finding that rural-to-urban movement is primarily propelled by unemployment, poverty, agricultural constraints, and the pursuit of better public infrastructure and educational services in urban centers. Similarly, Borderon et al. (2019) demonstrated that environmental stressors, single-crop agricultural limits, and geographic isolation interact closely with economic drivers, pushing rural households toward urban and peri-urban destinations as a livelihood diversification strategy.

The structural role of physical infrastructure in altering migration trends is highlighted by Lama (2024), who documented that motor road construction and improved transport connectivity drastically compress travel times, transforming traditional seasonal or isolated movements into flexible, continuous year-round internal mobility toward major metropolitan hubs. Regarding destination dynamics, Tacoli et al. (2015) observed that rapid rural-to-urban migration concentrates population growth in municipal peripheries, creating continuous demand for local infrastructure, housing, and public utility expansion. Furthermore, Schon (2021) emphasized that migration flows are non-random and heavily structured by location networks and kinship ties, which reduce relocation risks for incoming migrants while generating spatial clustering in specific municipal wards. Complementing these findings, Lama (2024) conducted a sociological study on internal mobility in Nepal, observing that while migration significantly improves household income, living standards, and educational access, it simultaneously places heavy structural strain on local municipal services and land management at the destination.

2.3 Policy Review

Internal migration in Nepal is strongly connected to regional development and infrastructure distribution. Early periodic plans (1st to 10th plans) treated rural-to-urban migration as a negative trend and focused on keeping people in rural areas through agricultural programs. However, these early plans failed to control population movement because rural areas lacked basic physical infrastructure and services. In contrast, recent national economic plans, specifically the 15th and 16th Five-Year Plans by the National Planning Commission, recognize urbanization as a key part of economic growth. The 16th Five-Year Plan focuses on managing internal migration by planning satellite towns and infrastructure corridors to handle population overflow from

major cities. For Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu), these national plans explain the main pull factors, as state-funded roads, utilities, and commercial centers have concentrated in the Kathmandu Valley.

To manage the urban sprawl caused by population movement, national urban planning frameworks have changed over time. The older National Urban Policy (2007) relied on a centralized administration that focused mainly on core city areas, which failed to prevent unplanned urban sprawl on the city outskirts like Indrayani in Shankharapur Ward 9. The updated National Urban Policy (2081 / 2025) updates these roles under Nepal's federal system, directing local governments to upgrade local infrastructure capacity—such as roads, water supply, and waste management—before settlements expand. Alongside this, the National Urban Development Strategy (NUDS 2017–2031) sets physical planning targets for sustainable urban growth. NUDS specifically highlights the risk of losing agricultural land, natural drainage channels, and open spaces along the Kathmandu Valley periphery due to uncontrolled housing construction.

In-migration in Shankharapur Ward 9 directly drives land fragmentation, converting agricultural fields into residential housing plots. The Land Use Act (2019) and the National Land Policy (2019) are the main legal tools created to control this land-use transition. They establish formal zoning categories—such as Agricultural, Residential, and Commercial—and legally prohibit plotting fertile agricultural land into residential plots. On a regional scale, the Kathmandu Valley Strategic Development Master Plan, prepared by the Kathmandu Valley Development Authority (KVDA), provides spatial planning guidelines to regulate urban density and land development corridors across the capital's expanding edges.

Under federal decentralization, the Local Government Operation Act (LGOA), 2074 empowers local bodies to handle urban growth and service delivery. Section 11 of the LGOA gives Shankharapur Municipality the authority to register migrant households, enforce building codes, prepare local zoning plans, and manage municipal solid waste and public utilities. At the local administrative level, Shankharapur Municipality introduced a specific provision in 2076 B.S. requiring households to hold land registered in their own name within the municipality as a precondition to receive an official migration certificate. Prior to this 2076 B.S. rule, landless households could also obtain migration registration. From a planning and civil engineering perspective,

this local requirement ties official administrative recognition directly to property ownership, encouraging incoming migrants to purchase land and build housing, which further drives real estate plotting in Ward 9. However, there is a major gap between policy objectives and actual field implementation. While national laws like the Land Use Act mandate agricultural protection and planned expansion, local municipalities lack the technical tools, digital base maps, and engineering enforcement needed to stop informal real estate plotting. This gap between national planning policies and local municipal capacity explains why Ward 9 continues to experience uncoordinated land plotting and heavy pressure on local infrastructure.

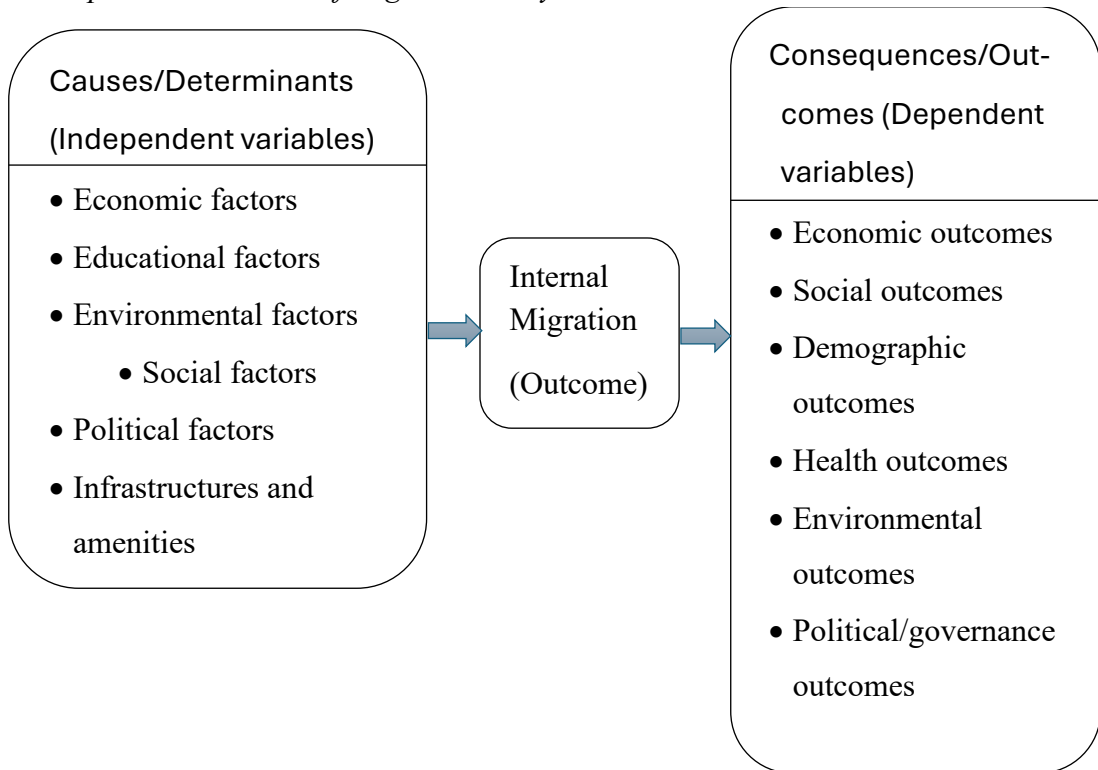
2.4 Research Gap

Despite extensive studies on migration in Nepal, several gaps remain. Most studies are macro-level or city-wide, lacking focus on specific wards like Ward 9, Sankhu. Few studies integrate demographic, socioeconomic, and policy perspectives simultaneously at the local level. Additionally, there is limited recent research reflecting post-2015 changes in migration patterns due to infrastructure development and urban expansion. Finally, little attention has been given to local planning implications and migrant integration at the ward level, highlighting the need for this study to provide context-specific insights and support evidence-based planning.

2.5 Conceptual Framework

Figure 1

Conceptual Framework of migration study



Note. The conceptual framework for this study illustrates the relationship between push-pull factors, personal characteristics, migration decisions, and their socio-economic consequences (Figure 1).

The independent variables represent the major factors that affect internal migration. It serves as the outcome or mediating process through which the determinants may produce economic, social, demographic, health, environmental, and political/governance consequences

The conceptual framework of this study explains the relationship between the causes and consequences of internal migration. The framework identifies various socio-economic, environmental, and demographic factors as independent variables that influence people's decision to migrate from one place to another within the country. Factors such as poverty, unemployment, lack of educational and health facilities, natural disasters, and search for better opportunities are considered major causes of internal migration.

These factors contribute to the movement of people from rural to urban areas or from one region to another in search of improved living conditions. Internal migration itself acts as the central process connecting the causes and consequences.

The dependent variables in the framework are the consequences or outcomes of migration. Internal migration may produce both positive and negative effects on migrants, families, and society. Positive consequences may include increased income, improved access to services, and better employment opportunities, while negative consequences may include urban overcrowding, pressure on infrastructure, unemployment, family separation, and social adjustment problems.

The framework guides the research methodology, data collection, and analysis, ensuring that the study captures the causes and consequences of migration in Ward 9, Sankhu.

CHAPTER-THREE

RESEARCH METHODOLOGY

The primary objective of this study is to examine the causes and consequences of in-migration in Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu), Kathmandu District, Nepal. To achieve this objective, a systematic methodological framework was established. This chapter details the research design, nature and sources of data, target universe and sampling procedure, data collection tools and techniques, and methods applied for data analysis and presentation.

3.1 Research Design

This study adopted an integrated exploratory and descriptive research design. An exploratory research design was employed to uncover the underlying push and pull factors, social decision-making processes, and unexpected destination challenges associated with household relocation to Shankharapur Ward 9. Concurrently, a descriptive research design was used to systematically document and measure the socio-economic and demographic profile of migrant households (e.g., age, sex composition, ethnicity, literacy rates, land holding sizes, and pre- vs. post-migration monthly income levels). By combining exploratory insights with descriptive measurements, the methodology effectively answers both "why" households relocated to peri-urban Shankharapur and "what" impact this movement has generated on local infrastructure and household living standards.

3.2 Nature and Sources of Data

To ensure validity and depth, this study utilized both primary and secondary data sources.

- i. **Primary Data:** Primary data were collected directly from field survey operations conducted in Shankharapur Ward 9. The primary dataset encompasses quantitative and qualitative information regarding household composition, demographic attributes, push factors at place of origin, pull factors at destination, monthly income, and other.
- ii. **Secondary Data:** Secondary data were gathered to establish historical, demographic, and policy context. Key secondary sources included administrative publications and

ward records from Shankharapur Municipality, national demographic reports from the National Statistics Office (NSO, 2021 Population and Housing Census), strategic plans from the National Planning Commission (NPC), research publications from the Centre for Economic Development and Administration (CEDA), and peer-reviewed academic literature on Nepalese migration trends.

3.3 Size of Universe and Sampling

The size of universe in the study was 89 household who migrated there from year 2074-2083 BS. The study used census approach that all those 89 households as it was relatively small in number and missing some portion may significantly distort the result gathered thereafter. Hence the household-level information was collected from those 89 sampled in-migrant households. The households with the total number of in-migrants at 345 were considered for the study according to their migration experience and the information required for the study. The distribution of the sampled households by year of migration is presented below.

Table 1

Distribution of sampled households by year of migration

Year	Number of households
2074	9
2075	5
2076	8
2077	2
2078	12
2079	14
2080	9
2081	11
2082	16
2083	3
Total	89

Note. Source: Field Survey 2026.

The table shows that the number of sampled migrant households varied across the years. The highest number of households, 16, migrated in 2082, followed by 14 households in 2079 and 12 households in 2078. The lowest number was recorded in 2077, with 2 households. Overall, 89 households were included in the study.

3.4 Data Collection tools and Techniques

During the research study the data has been collected with the help of both structure and non-structured questionnaire, field observations, and informal discussions. The questionnaires have included all the questions, which are needed to collect the information related to household and socio-economic activities. After the collecting of data process, the collected data has been done for drawing out meaningful result, data processing has been done using software package SPSS and Excel.

3.5 Data Analysis and Presentation

Data has been collected from the field survey, so it needed to be analyzed to get fruitful results, the collected data has been analyzed by using Excel and SPSS programs. The result has been presented in such way as percentage distribution, use of bar and diagram, tabulation and classification graphical presentation.

CHAPTER FOUR

DATA ANALYSIS AND INTERPRETATION

4.1 Socio-economic and demographic characteristics of migrants

This is the description of population which provides demographic, socio-economic and cultural characteristics of households of the study area, such as literacy status, ethnicity, religion, age and sex distribution, marital status, family size etc.

4.1.1 Socio-Economic Characteristics

This section presents some selected socio-economic indicators of the study area population. It defines many variables such as literacy status of migrants, ethnic composition, land ownership etc.

4.1.1.1 Literacy Status of Migrants

Literacy is one of the most important social characteristics of a population, as it has a direct bearing on employment opportunities, awareness, and the overall capacity of individuals to adapt to a new social and economic environment after migration. In this study, an attempt has been made to examine the literacy status of the migrant population of Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu), considering the population aged 5 years and above. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of the migrant population by literacy status and sex is presented in the table below.

Table 2

Distribution of Migrant by Literacy Status and Sex aged 5 Years and above

Literacy Status	Male No.	Male %	Female No.	Female %	Total No.	Total %
Literate	164	93.71	107	66.88	271	80.90
Illiterate	11	6.29	53	33.13	64	19.10
Total	175	100.00	160	100.00	335	100.00

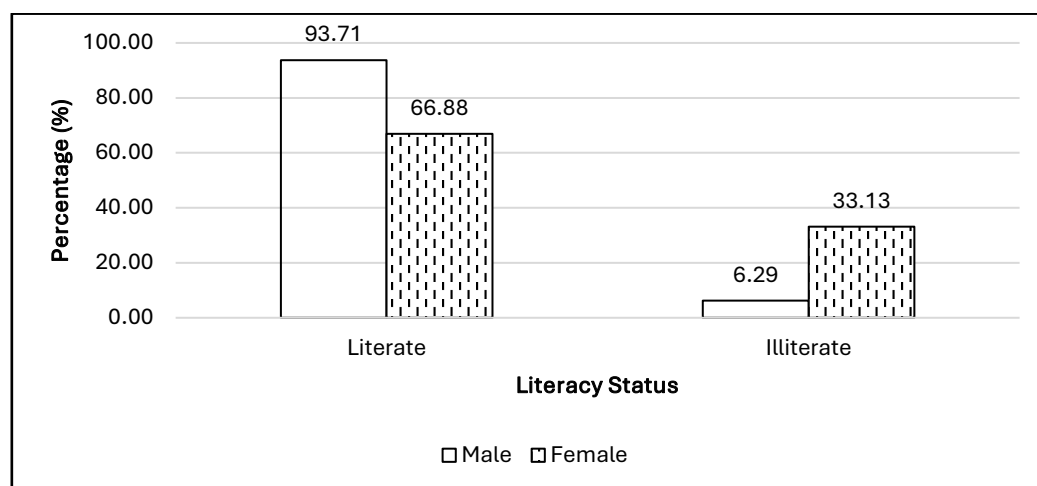
Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 3 shows that, among the migrant population aged 5 years and above, 271 persons (80.9%) are literate while 64 persons (19.1%) are illiterate. Literacy is markedly higher among males, at 93.7 percent, compared with 66.9 percent among females, and correspondingly the illiteracy rate among females (33.1%) is more than

five times that among males (6.3%). This gender gap in literacy is consistent with the wider Nepalese pattern in which older-generation women have historically had less access to formal schooling than men, and it suggests that female migrants in the study area may face relatively greater constraints in accessing information, services and employment opportunities at the destination than their male counterparts.

Figure 2

Literacy Status and Sex distribution of migrants population aged 5 years and above



Note. This figure illustrates the distribution of literacy status by sex among migrants aged 5 years and above.

4.1.1.2 Ethnicity

Nepal is a multi-cultural, multi-ethnic and multi-religious country, home to a wide variety of ethnic groups, each with their own distinct customs and traditions. In this context, it is worth investigating whether certain ethnic groups have been more involved in migration than others. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, distribution of migrant households by ethnicity is presented in the table below.

Table 3

Distribution of Migrant Households by Ethnicity

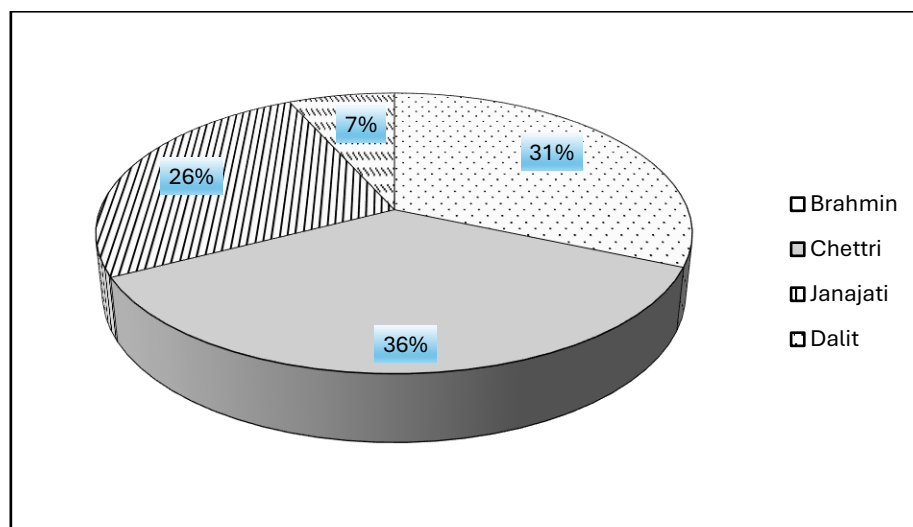
Ethnicity	No. of households	Percentage (%)
Brahmin	28	31.46
Chettri	32	35.96
Janajati	23	25.84
Dalit	6	6.74
Total	89	100.00

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 4 shows that out of 89 migrant households, Chhetri households are in highest number with 36.0 percent, followed by Brahmin with 31.5 percent. Janajati households cover 25.8 percent and Dalit households are lowest with only 6.7 percent. This shows that Brahmin and Chhetri together make more than two third (67.5%) of the total migrant households in the study area, while Dalit households have migrated in a much smaller number. This suggests that migration in the study area is not evenly distributed across ethnic groups, with Brahmin and Chhetri households showing a notably higher propensity to migrate than Dalit households.

Figure 3

Distribution of Migrant Households by Ethnicity



Note. This figure illustrates the distribution of migrant household by ethnicity.

4.1.1.3 Religion

Nepal was declared a secular state by the reinstated parliament in 2006, a status subsequently upheld by the Interim Constitution of 2007 and retained in the Constitution of Nepal, 2015. This declaration reflects the state's formal commitment to treat and respect all religions practiced by the Nepalese people equally. However, the Hindu religion has traditionally remained the majority religion of the country, followed by Buddhist, Muslim, Kirat and Christian populations, among others; the National Population Census 2021 recorded 81.19 percent of the population as Hindu, 8.21 percent as Buddhist, 5.09 percent as Muslim, 3.17 percent as Kirat and 1.76 percent as Christian (National Statistics Office [NSO], 2021). In this study, an attempt has also been made to examine whether there is any relationship between the religion of the migrants and the process of in-migration in the study area. Based on the responses

obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of migrant households by religion is presented in the table below.

Table 4

Distribution of Migrant Households by Religion

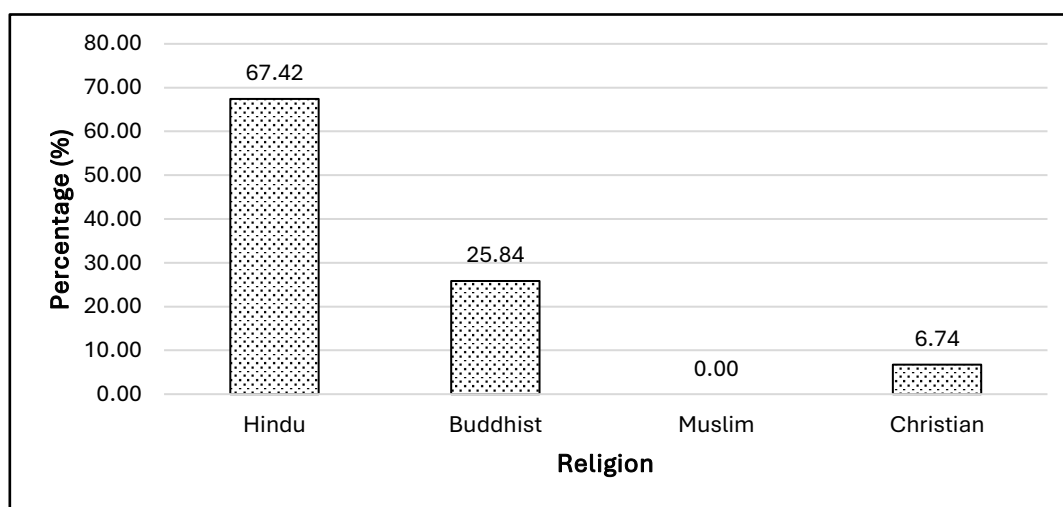
Religion	No. of households	Percentage (%)
Hindu	60	67.42
Buddhist	23	25.84
Muslim	0	0.00
Christian	6	6.74
Total	89	100.00

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 5 shows that out of 89 migrant households, Hindu households form the large majority with 67.4 percent, followed by Buddhist households with 25.8 percent and Christian households with 6.7 percent. No Muslim household was recorded among the migrant households in the study area. While Hindu households remain the majority among migrants, consistent with their national majority status, their share among the migrants (67.4%) is notably lower than their share nationally (81.19%, NSO, 2021), while Buddhist households appear over-represented (25.8% against a national 8.21%). As these figures cover the complete population of migrant households in the study area rather than a sample drawn from it, this gap reflects an actual difference in religious composition between the study area and the national population, rather than a limitation of sampling.

Figure 4

Distribution of Migrant Households by Religion



Note. This figure illustrates the distribution of migrant household by religion.

4.1.1.4 Size of Land Holding

Land ownership is one of the key indicators of the economic status of a household, and it is also directly relevant to how migrant status is recognized in the study area. During the course of this study, an inquiry was made with the administrative body of the municipality regarding the criteria used to grant migrant status to in-migrating households. It was learnt that a change in provision was introduced in 2078 B.S., under which a migrant household is required to hold some land in its own name within the municipality in order to be granted migrant status. Prior to this provision, households without any land ownership were also able to obtain a migration certificate. In view of this administrative context, this study examines not only the broader division between land-owning and non-land-owning migrant households, but also the variation in the size of land holding among the households that do own land.

Table 5

Distribution of Migrant Households by Size of Land Holding

Size of Land Holding	No. of Households	Percent (%)
Ropani	16	17.98
Aana	62	69.66
Paisa	0	0.00
Daam	0	0.00
Others	11	12.36
Total	89	100

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 6 shows that all 89 migrant households in the study area reported owning some land, with no household falling into a landless category. This is consistent with the administrative provision noted above, under which land ownership has become a precondition for obtaining migrant status in the municipality. Among the land-owning households, however, there is considerable variation in the size of holding. The majority of households, 69.7 percent, own land measured in Aana, a comparatively small unit of land measurement, while 18.0 percent hold larger parcels measured in Ropani. The remaining 12.4 percent hold land under other or mixed measurement categories. This indicates that while land ownership is now near-universal among migrant households, the actual size of land held by most of these households remains modest.

4.1.1.5 Source of Water

Access to a reliable source of drinking water is a basic necessity and is often regarded as one of the physical facilities that influences a household's decision on where to settle. Water, as such, is not a scarce resource in the study area, as there are multiple water source points (locally known as muhan) from which water is distributed to households, serving both local and migrant populations alike. Drinking water itself is available in adequate quantity to meet household needs. However, for those requiring a greater quantity of water, such as for house construction or irrigation, a considerable number of households opt for boring (tube-well) to fulfil this additional demand. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of migrant households by their main source of drinking water is presented in the table below.

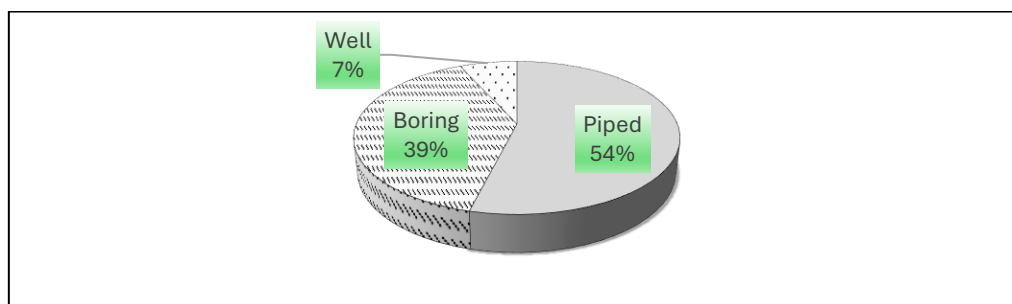
Table 6

Distribution of Migrant Households by Source of Drinking Water

Source of Water	No. of Households	Percent (%)
Piped	48	53.93
Boring	35	39.33
Well	6	6.74
Total	89	100.00

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 7 shows that more than half of the migrant households, 53.9 percent, rely on piped water as their main source of drinking water, while 39.3 percent depend on boring (tube-well) and 6.7 percent depend on well water. All 89 migrant households reported access to at least one of these sources, confirming that water is not a scarce resource for migrant households in the study area. The considerable share relying on boring (39.3%) is consistent with the pattern noted above, whereby households use boring primarily to meet additional water requirements such as construction and irrigation, rather than because piped drinking water is unavailable to them.

Figure 5*Distribution of Migrant Households by Source of Drinking Water*

Note. This figure illustrates the distribution of migrant household by religion.

4.1.2 Demographic Characteristics

4.1.2.1 Age and Sex Composition of Migrants

Age and sex composition is one of the most important demographic parameters, as it has a direct bearing on the volume, direction and pattern of migration. It also provides a basis for assessing the potential workforce and dependency burden of the migrant population. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of the migrant population by five-year age group and sex is presented in the table below.

Table 7*Distribution of Migrant Population by Five-Year Age Group and Sex*

Age Group	Male	Percentage (%)	Female	Percentage (%)	Total	Percentage (%)
0-4	6	3.31	4	2.44	10	2.90
5-9	7	3.87	4	2.44	11	3.19
10-14	14	7.73	11	6.71	25	7.25
15-19	7	3.87	10	6.10	17	4.93
20-24	20	11.05	13	7.93	33	9.57
25-29	15	8.29	15	9.15	30	8.70
30-34	19	10.50	17	10.37	36	10.43
35-39	12	6.63	17	10.37	29	8.41
40-44	12	6.63	21	12.80	33	9.57
45-49	19	10.50	8	4.88	27	7.83
50-54	12	6.63	18	10.98	30	8.70
54-59	16	8.84	12	7.32	28	8.12
60-64	10	5.52	3	1.83	13	3.77
65+	12	6.63	11	6.71	23	6.67
Total	181	100.00	164	100.00	345	100.00

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 8 shows that the migrant population of the study area consists of 345 persons, of whom 181 (52.5%) are male and 164 (47.5%) are female, giving a sex ratio of approximately 110 males per 100 females. The largest concentration of the migrant population falls in the age group 30-34 years (10.4%), followed by the 20-24 and 40-44 age groups, each accounting for 9.6 percent. Taken together, the economically active age groups between 20 and 49 years account for close to half of the total migrant population, which suggests that migration into the study area is dominated by persons of working age, consistent with employment and livelihood-related motives. Among children below 15 years, the 10-14 age group is comparatively large (7.2%), while the population aged 65 years and above constitutes 6.7 percent of the total, indicating a relatively modest elderly dependent population among migrants.

4.1.2.2 Marital Status of Migrants (aged 10 years and above)

Marital status is an important demographic attribute that has a bearing on household formation, family responsibilities, and the decision-making process underlying migration. Information on the marital status of migrants by sex, obtained from the questionnaire survey, is presented in the table below.

Table 8

Distribution of Migrants by Marital Status and Sex

Marital Status	Male No.	Percentage (%)	Female No.	Percentage (%)	Total No.	Percentage (%)
Unmarried	69	41.07	54	34.62	123	37.96
Married	99	58.93	102	65.38	201	62.04
Total	168	100.00	156	100.00	324	100.00

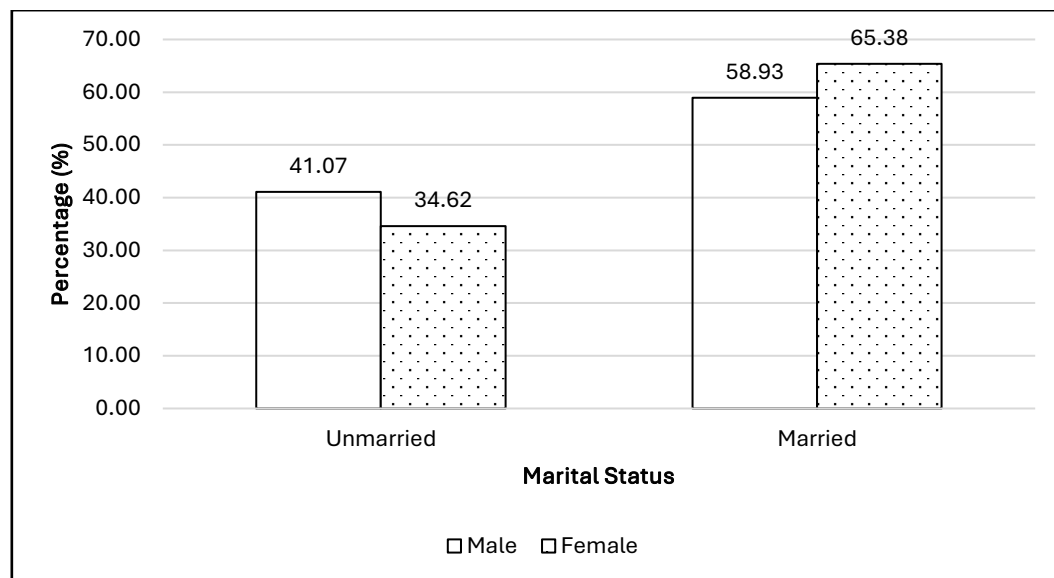
Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 9 shows that among the migrants covered under this question, 201 (62.0%) are married and 123 (38.0%) are unmarried. The proportion married is higher among females (65.4%) than among males (58.9%), while the reverse holds for the unmarried category, where males (41.1%) outnumber females (34.6%) in proportional terms. This pattern suggests that a considerable share of migration into the study area involves married individuals, which is consistent with family-related and livelihood-related motives for migration rather than migration of unattached individuals alone. It may be noted that the total number of migrants reported under marital status (324) is lower than the total migrant population of 345 shown in Table No. 8. This is because the marital

status question was administered only to migrants aged 10 years and above; excluding the 0-4 and 5-9 age groups (21 children, comprising 13 males and 8 females) from Table No. 8 that reduces the population to exactly 168 males and 156 females, matching Table No. 9.

Figure 6

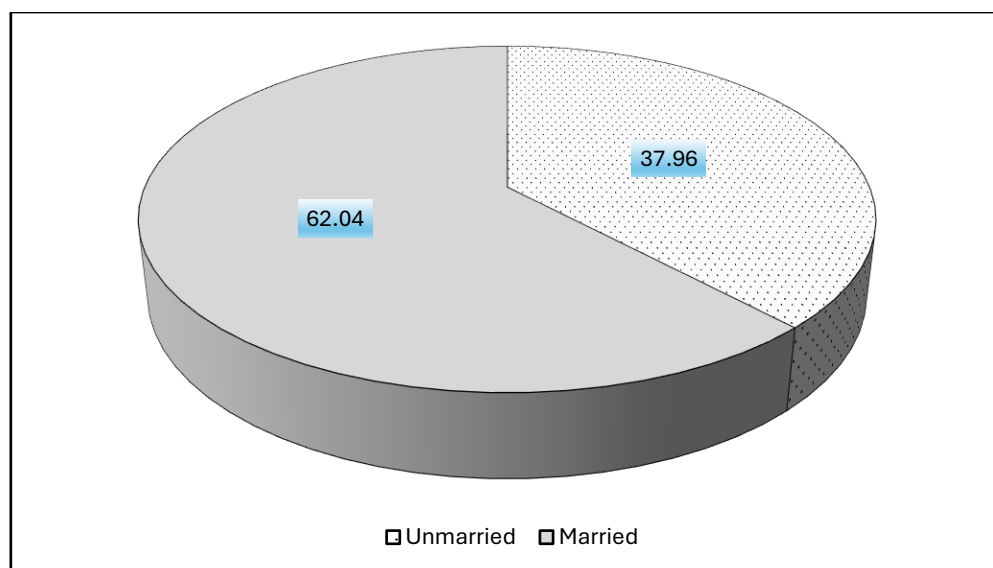
Marital Status of Migrants by Sex



Note. This figure illustrates the marital status of migrant population by sex.

Figure 7

Marital Status of Migrants by Sex



Note. Pie-chart showing the marital status of migrant population by sex.

4.1.2.3 Family Size

Family size is closely linked to household resource pressure and is often considered one of the underlying factors behind the decision to migrate. Larger families face greater demand on limited land, income, and housing space, which can act as a push factor for out-migration from the place of origin. Information on the family size of the migrant households surveyed is presented below.

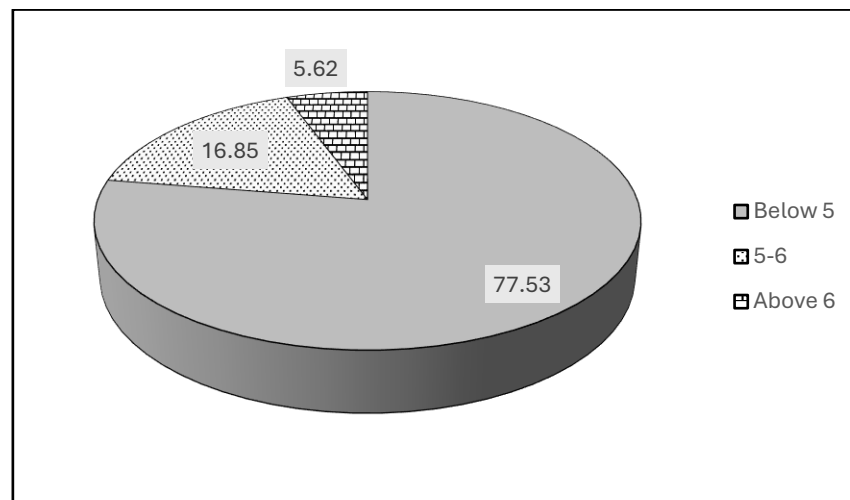
Table 9

Distribution of Migrant Households by Family Size

Family size	No. of Household	Percentage (%)
Below 5	69	77.53
5-6	15	16.85
Above 6	5	5.62
Total	89	100.00

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 10 shows that the majority of migrant households, 69 (77.5%), have a family size below 5 members. Households with 5 to 6 members account for 15 (16.9%), while only 5 households (5.6%) have more than 6 members. Taking the total number of migrant household members (345) and dividing it by the total number of migrant households (89) gives an average family size of $345 \div 89 = 3.88$ persons per household. This predominance of small households is consistent with Nepal's broader demographic trend: the national average household size fell from 4.88 persons in 2011 to 4.37 persons in 2021 (NSO, 2021), and Bagmati Province, where the study area is located, recorded an even lower average of 3.89 persons per household, among the lowest of any province in the country. The small size of migrant households in the study area therefore mirrors both the national shift toward nuclear family structures — nuclear households (6,660,481) vastly outnumber joint households (6,096) in the 2021 census — and the specifically urban character of Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu), as migrants typically relocate with only their immediate family members rather than the full extended household.

Figure 8*Distribution of Migrant Households by Family Size*

Note. This figure illustrates the distribution of migrant household by family size.

4.1.2.4 Age Dependency Ratio

The age dependency ratio measures the economic burden that the population outside the working age places on the population within the working age group. For this purpose, the population is divided into three broad age categories: children aged 0-14 years, the working-age population aged 15-64 years, and the elderly population aged 65 years and above. The child and the elderly population together are treated as the economically dependent population, while the population aged 15-64 years is treated as the economically active population. The child dependency ratio, the old age dependency ratio and the total dependency ratio are calculated as follows:

In the context of a migration study, the age dependency ratio also serves as a useful indirect indicator of the underlying motive of migration, in addition to measuring the economic burden on the working-age population. A relatively low dependency ratio generally suggests that migration is driven primarily by working-age individuals in search of better earning opportunities, since such migrants are less likely to bring dependent children or elderly members along with them. A comparatively higher dependency ratio, on the other hand, may point toward motives other than employment alone: a high old age dependency ratio could reflect migration undertaken for access to better medical facilities or a wish to remain close to relatives in old age, while a high child dependency ratio could reflect migration undertaken to provide children with a better environment in which to grow up. This interpretation is used here as an indicative

rather than definitive link, and is examined further in Chapter Five in light of the reasons for migration reported directly by the respondents.

$$\text{Child Dependency Ratio} = (\text{Population aged 0-14 years} \div \text{Population aged 15-64 years}) \times 100$$

$$\text{Old Age Dependency Ratio} = (\text{Population aged 65 years and above} \div \text{Population aged 15-64 years}) \times 100$$

$$\text{Total Dependency Ratio} = \text{Child Dependency Ratio} + \text{Old Age Dependency Ratio}$$

Based on the age-sex distribution of the migrant population presented in Table No. 8, the age dependency ratio of the study area by sex is calculated and presented in the table below.

Table 10

Age Dependency Ratio of the Migrant Population by Sex

Age Dependency Ratio	Male	Female	Total
Child Dependency Ratio	19.01	14.18	16.67
Old age Dependency Ratio	8.45	8.21	8.33
Total	27.46	22.39	25.00

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 11 shows that the overall age dependency ratio of the migrant population is 25.0, meaning that for every 100 persons of working age (15-64 years), there are 25 dependents to support, comprising 16.7 child dependents and 8.3 elderly dependents. The dependency burden is somewhat higher among males (27.5) than among females (22.4), and this difference is driven almost entirely by the child dependency ratio, which stands at 19.0 for males against 14.2 for females, while the old age dependency ratio is nearly identical between the two sexes (8.5 for males and 8.2 for females). The comparatively low overall dependency ratio, well below the level typically associated with a broad-based, high-fertility population, is consistent with the earlier finding that the migrant population is concentrated in the economically active age groups (Table No. 8), reinforcing the view that migration into the study area is predominantly driven by working-age individuals and their immediate families rather than by dependents alone.

4.2 Causes and Consequences of Migration

4.2.1 Causes of Migration

The causes of migration refer to the various factors that motivate people to leave one place and settle in another. These factors are broadly understood in terms of push and pull factors: push factors are the unfavourable conditions at the place of origin that compel people to move away, while pull factors are the favourable conditions at the place of destination that draw people towards it. This section examines the causes associated with in-migration into Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu), beginning with the reasons that led migrant households to leave their place of origin.

4.2.1.1 Reasons for Leaving the Place of Origin

The reason for leaving the place of origin reflects the push factors that influenced migrant households to move away from their previous place of residence. In this study, respondents were asked to identify the single most important reason that led them to leave their place of origin. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of migrant households by reason for leaving the place of origin is presented in the table below.

Table 11

Distribution of Migrant Households by Reason for Leaving Place of Origin

Reason for leaving	No. of households	Percentage (%)
Limited market	18	20.22
Limited arable land	7	7.87
Limited job opportunity	24	26.97
Limited infrastructure	31	34.83
Government job	5	5.62
Victim of conflict	4	4.49
Total	89	100.00

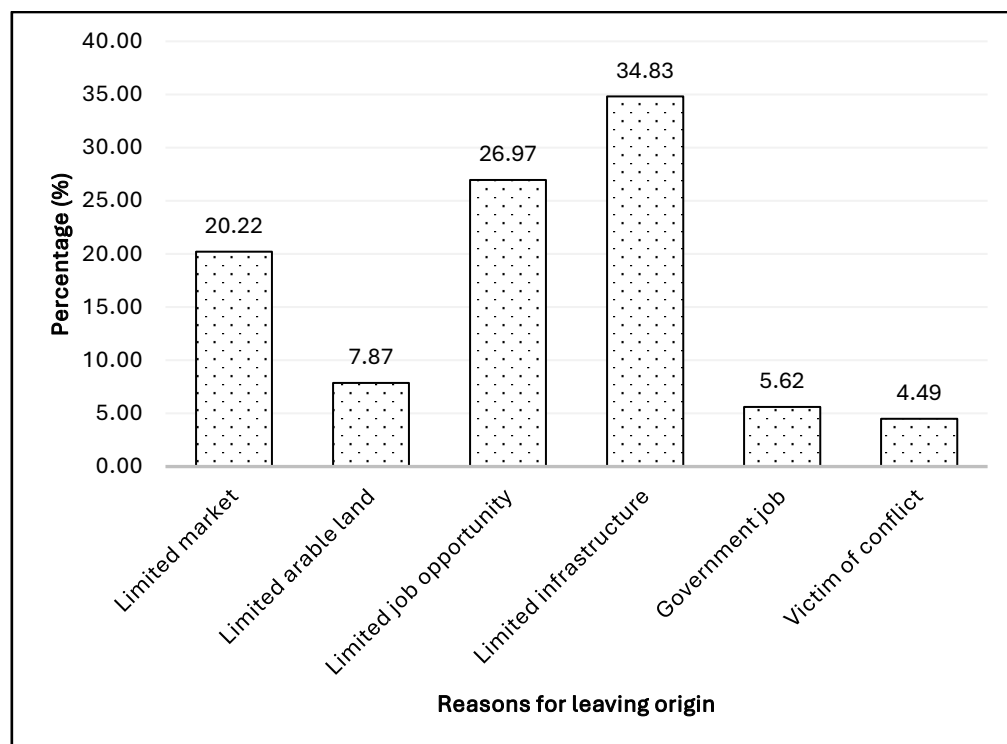
Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 12 shows that limited infrastructure is the single most commonly reported reason for leaving the place of origin, cited by 31 households (34.8%), followed by limited job opportunity (24 households, 27.0%) and limited market (18 households, 20.2%). Taken together, these three reasons — infrastructure, employment and market access — account for more than four-fifths (82.0%) of all households, indicating that the decision to leave the place of origin in this study area is overwhelmingly linked to

the underdevelopment of physical and economic infrastructure rather than to social or political causes. Limited arable land was reported by 7 households (7.9%), reflecting land scarcity or fragmentation as a comparatively minor push factor. Only 5 households (5.6%) left their place of origin owing to a government job posting, and just 4 households (4.5%) reported having been displaced as victims of conflict, suggesting that career-related transfers and conflict-induced displacement played only a marginal role in shaping the in-migration stream into this study area.

Figure 9

Distribution of Migrant Households by Reason for Leaving Place of Origin



Note. This figure illustrates the distribution of migrant by reason for leaving origin.

4.2.1.2 Place of Origin

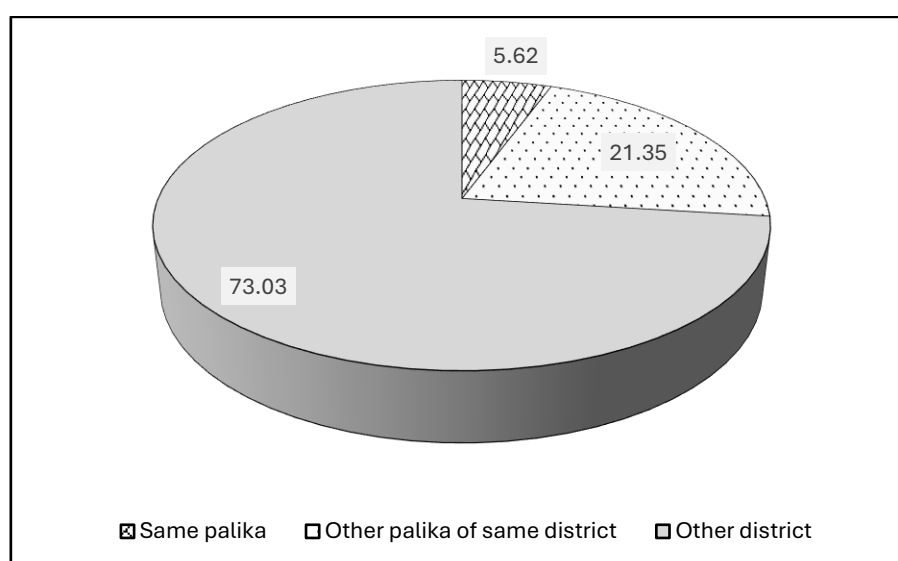
The place of origin indicates the geographic distance and administrative boundary that migrant households crossed before settling in Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu). It is an important indicator of the scale of movement, since a household relocating from within the same local unit faces a very different set of push and pull factors than one arriving from a distant district. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of migrant households by their place of origin before migration is presented in the table below.

Table 12*Distribution of Migrant Households by Place of Origin*

Place of Origin	No. of Households	Percentage (%)
Same palika	5	5.62
Other palika of same district	19	21.35
Other district	65	73.03
Total	89	100.00

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 13 shows that the overwhelming majority of migrant households, 65 out of 89 (73.0%), moved into Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) from a different district altogether, indicating that long-distance, inter-district migration is by far the dominant pattern of in-migration in the study area. A further 19 households (21.3%) migrated from another palika within the same district, representing a shorter, intra-district move. Only 5 households (5.6%) originated from within the same palika, suggesting that migration confined to the same local unit is comparatively rare. This pattern is consistent with the findings in Section 5.1.1, where limited infrastructure, job opportunity and market access at the place of origin were reported as the leading reasons for leaving: households facing such constraints appear willing to cross considerable administrative distance, well beyond their own district, to reach the physical and economic facilities available in Sankhu.

Figure 10*Distribution of Migrant Households by Place of Origin*

Note. This figure illustrates the distribution of migrant household by place of origin.

4.2.1.3 Responsible Person for Decision Making to Migrate

The decision to migrate is rarely made in isolation; it is often shaped or directly taken by another person on behalf of the household, particularly where the migrant is a dependent family member, a spouse, or a child. Identifying who was primarily responsible for the decision to migrate helps to clarify whether migration into the study area is chiefly an individual, family-driven or socially-mediated process. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of migrant households by the person responsible for making the decision to migrate is presented in the table below.

Table 13

Distribution of Migrant Households by Responsible Person for Decision Making to Migrate

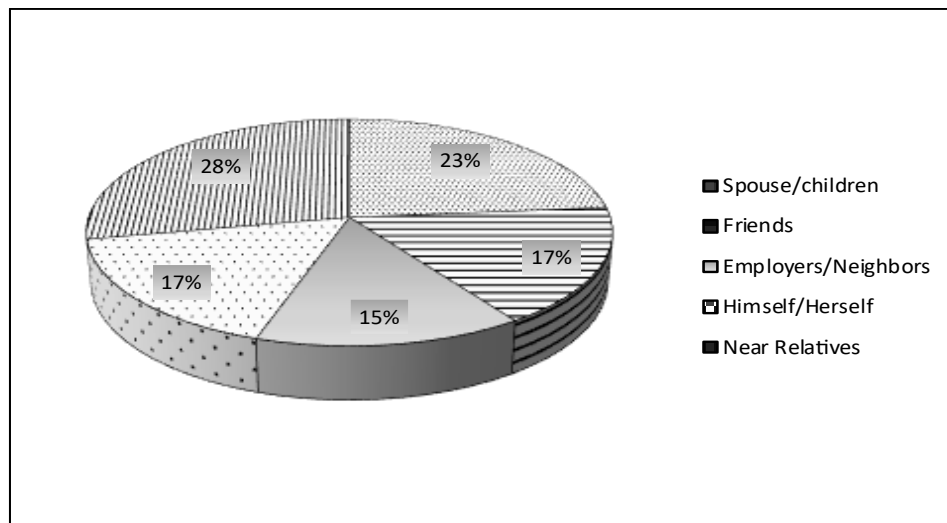
Responsible person	No. of household	Percentage (%)
Spouse/children	21	23.60
Friends	15	16.85
Employers/Neighbors	13	14.61
Himself/Herself	15	16.85
Near Relatives	25	28.09
Total	89	100.00

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 14 shows that near relatives were the single most commonly reported source of the migration decision, accounting for 25 households (28.09%), followed by spouse or children at 23.6 percent. Together, decisions attributed to relatives, spouses or children — that is, decisions made within the wider family circle rather than by the migrant alone — account for more than half (51.7%) of all households, underscoring the strongly family-mediated nature of the migration process in the study area. Friends (16.9%) and the migrants themselves (16.9%) were reported in equal measure, while employers or neighbors were cited by 13 households (14.6%) as the least common source of the decision. This pattern suggests that migration into Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) is, in most cases, not a purely individual choice but one embedded in existing kinship and social networks, consistent with the finding in Section 5.1.2 that a large majority of migrants came from beyond their own district and were likely to have relied on relatives or family already settled in or familiar with the destination area.

Figure 11

Distribution of Migrant Households by Responsible Person for Decision Making to Migrate



Note. This figure shows the distribution of migrant household by responsible person for decision making to migrate.

4.2.2 Consequences of Migration

While the previous section examined the causes that led migrant households to leave their place of origin, migration also brings about a range of consequences at the place of destination, both positive and negative. These consequences may be reflected in the migrants' satisfaction with their current place of residence, the problems they continue to face after settling in Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu), their future intention to remain there, and the changes they have experienced in aspects of their lives such as culture, occupation, food habit and access to education. This section examines these consequences in turn, drawing on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey.

4.2.2.1 Satisfaction with Current Place of Residence

Satisfaction with the current place of residence is one of the most direct indicators of the overall consequence of migration for a household, as it reflects the migrant's own assessment of whether the move has met their expectations. In this study, respondents were asked whether they were satisfied with their current place of residence, whether they were not satisfied, or whether their situation felt no different from before migration. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of

migrant households by satisfaction with the current place of residence is presented in the table below.

Table 14

Distribution of Migrant Households by Satisfaction with Current Place of Residence

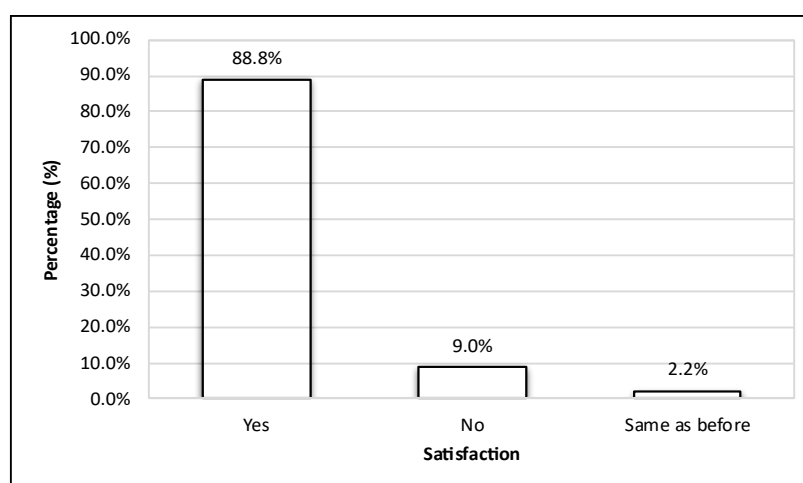
Satisfaction	No. of Households	Percent (%)
Yes	79	88.8
No	8	9.0
Same as before	2	2.2
Total	89	100.0

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 15 shows that the overwhelming majority of migrant households, 79 out of 89 (88.8%), reported that they are satisfied with their current place of residence, indicating that migration has, for most households, met or exceeded the expectations that motivated the move. Only 8 households (9.0%) reported that they are not satisfied, while a further 2 households (2.2%) reported that their situation feels no different from before migration. This high overall level of satisfaction is consistent with the pattern already observed in Section 5.1.1, where limited infrastructure, job opportunity and market access were the leading reasons for leaving the place of origin: for most households, relocating to Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) appears to have resolved the very constraints that originally drove them to migrate.

Figure 12

Distribution of Migrant Households by Satisfaction with Current Place of Residence



Note. This figure shows the distribution of migrant household by satisfaction with destination place.

4.2.2.2 Problems Facing at Destination

Although migration is generally undertaken in search of better opportunities, the place of destination is not always free of difficulties. Identifying the problems that migrant households continue to face after settling in Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) helps to highlight the gaps that remain in local infrastructure and services despite migration having occurred. In this study, respondents were asked to identify the single most important problem they face at their current place of residence. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of migrant households by the main problem facing at the current place of residence is presented in the table below.

Table 15

Distribution of Migrant Households by Problems Facing at the Current Place of Residence

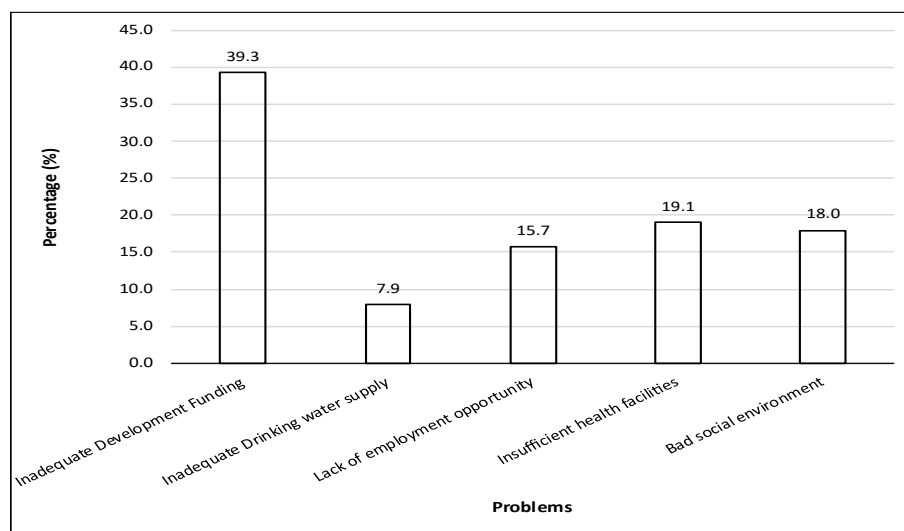
Problems	No. of Households	Percent (%)
Inadequate development funding	35	39.33
Insufficient health facilities	17	19.10
Bad social environment	16	17.98
Lack of employment opportunity	14	15.73
Inadequate drinking water supply	7	7.87
Total	89	100.00

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 16 shows that inadequate development funding is the single most commonly reported problem facing migrant households at their current place of residence, cited by 35 households (39.3%) — well ahead of any other single problem. Insufficient health facilities (19.1%) and a bad social environment (18.0%) are the next most frequently reported problems, followed by lack of employment opportunity (15.7%). Inadequate drinking water supply is the least commonly reported problem, cited by only 7 households (7.9%). Taken together, these findings suggest that although migrant households have generally gained better access to physical facilities than at their place of origin (as shown in the causes discussed in Section 5.1.1), local infrastructure and service delivery in Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) — particularly development funding, health and employment — have not fully kept pace with the sustained inflow of in-migrants, and remain the principal sources of continuing difficulty for migrant households at the destination.

Figure 13

Distribution of Migrant Households by Problems Facing at the Current Place of Residence



Note. This figure shows the distribution of migrant household by satisfaction with destination place.

4.2.2.3 Permanency of Households in the Study Area

Whether migrant households intend to remain permanently at their current place of residence is an important indicator of the overall success of migration from the migrants' own point of view. A high proportion of households wishing to stay on suggests that migration has largely met their expectations, whereas a notable share wishing to move away again points to unresolved difficulties at the destination. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of migrant households by their future intention regarding permanent residence is presented in the table below.

Table 16

Distribution of Migrant Households by Future Intention to Live Permanently

Want to Live Permanently	No. of Households	Percent (%)
Yes	76	85.4
No	13	14.6
Total	89	100.0

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 17 shows that a large majority of migrant households, 76 out of 89 (85.4%), intend to live permanently at their current place of residence, while 13 households

(14.6%) reported wanting to move to another town or village in the future. This high proportion of households intending to stay on is broadly consistent with the satisfaction levels reported in Section 5.2.1, and suggests that, on balance, migration into Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) has been a settled and largely successful transition for most migrant households, even though the problems identified in Section 5.2.2 indicate that the destination is not entirely without shortcomings.

4.2.2.4 Changes in Some Aspects of Migrants

Migration is not only a change of residence but can also bring about changes in the way migrant households live, work and access services. In this study, respondents were asked whether they had experienced any change, since migrating, in four specific aspects of their lives: culture, occupation, food habit, and access to education. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of migrant households reporting a change in each of these aspects is presented in the table below.

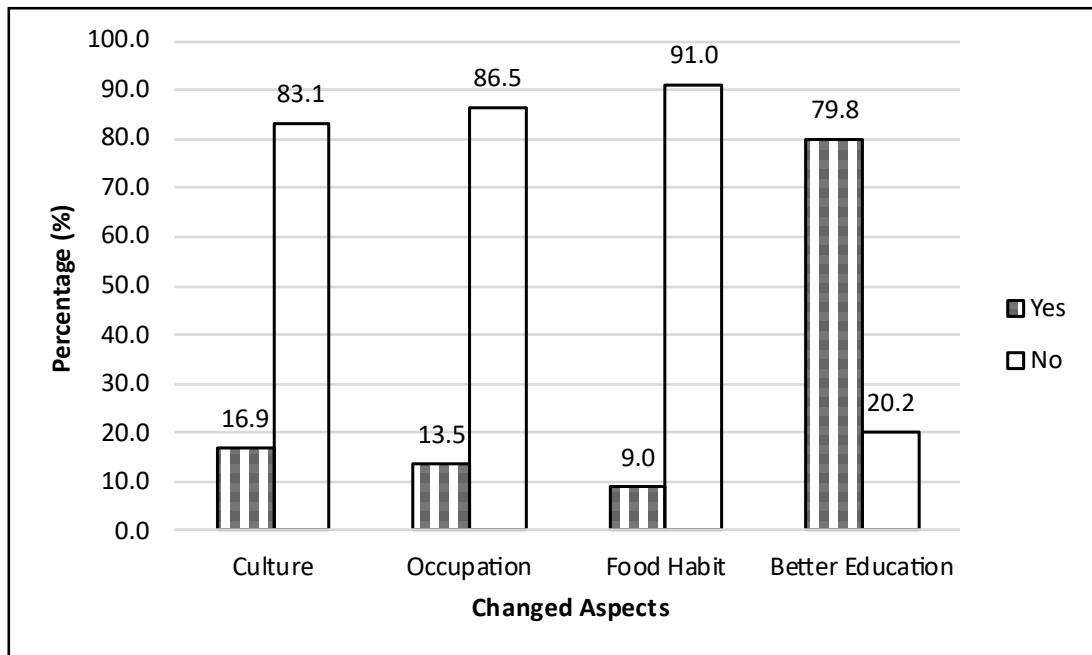
Table 17

Distribution of Migrant Households by Changes in Selected Aspects

Changed Aspect	Yes	Yes %	No.	No %
Culture	15	16.9	74	83.1
Occupation	12	13.5	77	86.5
Food Habit	8	9.0	81	91.0
Better Education	71	79.8	18	20.2

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 18 shows a clear contrast between the four aspects examined. Access to education stands out as the aspect most commonly affected by migration, with 71 households (79.8%) reporting a change, indicating that improved access to schooling is among the more tangible benefits migrant households have gained at their current place of residence. By contrast, changes in culture (16.9%), occupation (13.5%) and food habit (9.0%) were reported by a much smaller share of households, suggesting that most migrant households have retained their customary practices, occupation and dietary habits even after relocating. This pattern indicates that while migration into Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) has meaningfully improved access to education for a large share of households, it has not brought about widespread change in the more deeply rooted aspects of household life such as culture and occupation.

Figure 14*Distribution of Migrant Households by Changes in some Aspects*

Note. This figure shows the distribution of migrant household by changes in some aspects.

4.3 Comparative Analysis of Main Causes and Consequences of Migration

This chapter presents a comparative analysis of the situation of migrant households before and after migration, drawing together the socio-economic indicators discussed separately in the preceding chapters. Comparing conditions at the place of origin with those at the place of destination provides a more direct basis for assessing the extent to which migration has changed the economic and material circumstances of migrant households, going beyond the causes and consequences examined individually in Chapter Five.

4.3.1 Income

Monthly household income is one of the most direct indicators of the economic outcome of migration. In this study, respondents were asked to report their average monthly household income both at their place of origin, prior to migration, and at their current place of residence. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire

survey, the distribution of migrant households by monthly income at the place of origin and the place of destination is presented in the table below.

Table 18

Distribution of Migrant Households by Monthly Income at Place of Origin and Place of Destination

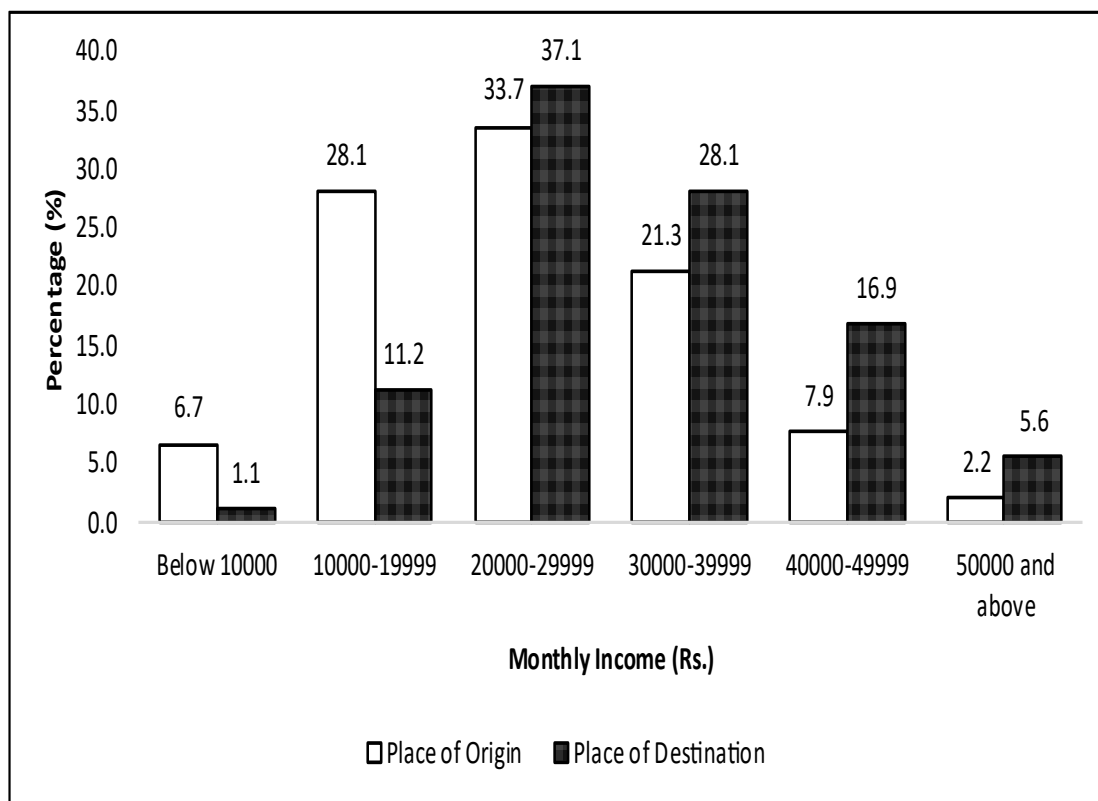
Monthly Income (Rs.)	No. of HH at Origin	Percentage (%)	No. of HH at destination	Percentage (%)
Below 10000	6	6.74	1	1.12
10000-19999	25	28.09	10	11.24
20000-29999	30	33.71	33	37.08
30000-39999	19	21.35	25	28.09
40000-49999	7	7.87	15	16.85
50000 and above	2	2.25	5	5.62
Total	89	100.00	89	100.00

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 19 shows a clear upward shift in the income distribution of migrant households after migration. At the place of origin, 31 households (34.8%) reported a monthly income below Rs. 20,000, whereas at the place of destination this share fell to 11 households (12.4%). Conversely, the share of households earning Rs. 40,000 or more rose from 9 households (10.1%) at the place of origin to 20 households (22.5%) at the place of destination. The largest single bracket at both places is Rs. 20,000-29,999, but even here the share increased slightly from 33.7 percent to 37.1 percent. Taken together, this pattern indicates that migration into Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) has, on the whole, been associated with an improvement in the monthly income of migrant households, consistent with the finding in Section 5.1.1 that limited job opportunity and limited market at the place of origin were among the leading reasons for leaving.

Figure 15

Distribution of Migrant Households by Monthly Income at Place of Origin and Destination



Note. This figure shows the distribution of migrant household by monthly income at place of origin and place of destination.

4.3.2 Occupation

Occupation is closely linked to household income and is itself often affected by migration, as households may shift into new lines of work upon settling at a new place of residence. In this study, respondents were asked to report their main occupation both at their place of origin and at their current place of residence. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the distribution of migrant households by occupation at the place of origin and the place of destination is presented in the table below.

Table 19

Distribution of Migrant Households by Occupation at Place of Origin and Place of Destination

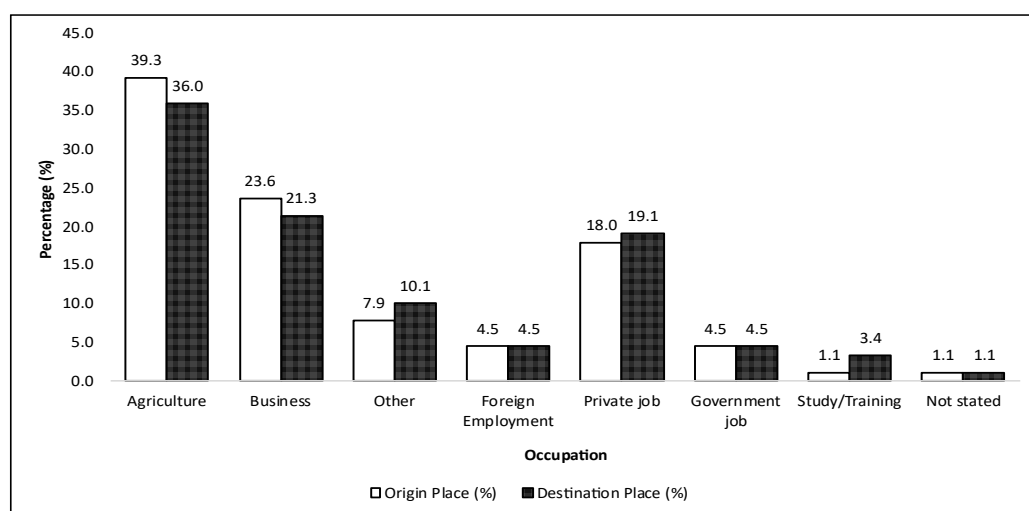
Occupation	No. of HHs at Origin	Origin %	No. of HHs at Destination	Destination %
Agriculture	35	39.3	32	36.0
Business	21	23.6	19	21.3
Private job	16	18.0	17	19.1
Other	7	7.9	9	10.1
Foreign employment	4	4.5	4	4.5
Government job	4	4.5	4	4.5
Study/Training	1	1.1	3	3.4
Not stated	1	1.1	1	1.1
Total	89	100.0	89	100.0

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 20 shows that agriculture remains the single most common occupation of migrant households both before and after migration, although its share has declined somewhat, from 39.3 percent at the place of origin to 36.0 percent at the place of destination. Business shows a similar modest decline, from 23.6 percent to 21.3 percent. In contrast, private job, other occupations, and study/training all show a rise in share, with study/training more than tripling in proportion, from 1.1 percent to 3.4 percent, though this still represents a small absolute number of households. Foreign employment and government job remain unchanged at 4.5 percent each. Overall, the occupational structure of migrant households has shifted only modestly, with a gradual movement away from agriculture toward private-sector employment and other diversified occupations, rather than a wholesale change in livelihood. This is broadly consistent with the income gains observed in Section 6.1, which appear to stem more from a shift within occupational categories than from large-scale occupational transformation.

Figure 16

Distribution of Migrant Households by Occupation at Place of Origin and Destination



Note. This figure shows the distribution of migrant household by occupation at place of origin and place of destination.

4.3.3 Physical Facilities

Access to physical facilities such as transport, electricity, communication, schooling and health services is a key determinant of the quality of life of a household, and disparities in such access between the place of origin and the place of destination often act as an important pull factor for migration. In this study, respondents were asked to report whether each of these five facilities was available (or was limited/not available) to them both at their place of origin and current place. Based on the responses obtained through the questionnaire survey, the comparison is presented in the table below.

Table 20

Percentage of Migrant Households Reporting Access to Physical Facilities at Place of Origin and Place of Destination

Physical Facilities	Percentage of respondents at Place of Origin		Percentage of respondents at Place of Destination	
	Yes (%)	Limited (%)	Yes (%)	Limited (%)
Transport	67.4	32.6	100.0	-
Electricity	100.0	0.0	100.0	-
Communication	92.1	7.9	100.0	-
School	100.0	0.0	100.0	-
Hospital	38.2	61.8	100.0	-

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 21 shows that access to physical facilities was uneven at the place of origin. Hospital facilities showed the largest gap, with only 38.2 percent of households reporting availability at origin and 61.8 percent reporting it as limited, followed by transport, available to 67.4 percent of households at origin. Electricity and school, by contrast, were already available to all or nearly all households at the place of origin (100.0% and 100.0% respectively), while communication was available to 92.1 percent. At the place of destination, all five facilities were reported as available by 100 percent of households. Given that every facility converges to exactly 100 percent at the destination, this finding should be read with some caution: it may reflect a genuine, near-universal level of physical infrastructure in Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) given its proximity to urban services, but a uniform 100 percent across all categories could also indicate that the destination-side question was interpreted by respondents as a simple presence/absence check rather than a measure of adequacy, and does not capture possible differences in the quality, reliability or cost of these facilities at the destination. With that caveat noted, the gap between origin and destination is clearly widest for hospital and transport facilities, indicating that improved access to health services and transportation are likely to be among the more significant welfare gains associated with migration into the study area.

4.3.4 Suggestion to the Relatives

After settling at the place of destination, migrants form their own impression of whether the move was worthwhile, and this impression often shapes the advice they give to relatives and friends who are still at the place of origin. Such suggestions can, in turn, influence the future flow of migration into the study area. Respondents were therefore asked what they would suggest to their relatives regarding coming to Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu). The responses are presented below.

Table 21

Distribution of Migrant Households by Suggestion Given to Relatives

Suggestion to Relatives	No. of Respondents	Percent
Come here	64	71.9
As you like	20	22.5
Go to another place	5	5.6
Total	89	100.0

Note. Source: Field Survey, 2026.

Table No. 22 shows that a large majority of respondents, 64 (71.9%), would suggest that their relatives come to this place, indicating a generally positive assessment of the migration experience among the surveyed households. A further 20 respondents (22.5%) said it was up to the relatives themselves to decide (“as you like”), reflecting a neutral stance rather than active discouragement. Only 5 respondents (5.6%) suggested that relatives go to another place instead. Taken together, more than nine in ten respondents (94.4%) gave either a positive or a neutral response, and only a small minority actively discouraged further migration to the study area, which is broadly consistent with the high level of satisfaction with the current place of residence reported in Section 5.2.1.

4.4 Impact of Migration in Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu)

The preceding sections have examined the causes, consequences and comparative socio-economic position of migrant households individually. This section draws these threads together to summarize the overall impact of in-migration on Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu), considered under two broad heads: the demographic impact, and the socio-economic impact on migrant households and the destination community.

A. Demographic Impact of In-Migration

Population Growth: The direct demographic effect of in-migration is the addition of 345 persons across 89 households (Table No. 8) to the population of Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu). Since 73.0 percent of these households moved in from a different district altogether (Table No. 13), this addition represents a genuine net inflow into the ward rather than a redistribution of population already within the same local area. Because the migrant population is concentrated in the economically active age groups and carries a comparatively low overall dependency ratio of 25.0 (Table No. 11), the population added by in-migration is weighted toward working-age individuals rather than a large dependent burden. The cross-sectional design of this study does not allow the indirect demographic effects of in-migration, that is, births and deaths occurring among migrant households after their arrival, to be measured directly; the comparatively small children's population recorded in the 0-9 age group (21 persons, Table No. 8) is consistent with some such natural increase having taken place since settlement, though this cannot be confirmed from the data collected.

Compositional Impact: In-migration has also altered the social composition of the ward relative to the national population. Ethnically, Chhetri (36.0%) and Brahmin (31.5%) households together account for more than two-thirds of migrant households (Table No. 4), while religiously, Buddhist households are markedly over-represented among migrants (25.8%) relative to their national share (8.21%, NSO, 2021), and Hindu households, while still the majority, fall short of their national share (67.4% against 81.19% nationally) (Table No. 5). In-migration has therefore contributed to a social composition in the ward that differs in some respects from the national pattern.

B. Socio-Economic Impact of In-Migration

Social Impact: The decision to migrate was, in most cases, family-mediated rather than purely individual: decisions attributed to near relatives, spouses or children together account for more than half of all households (51.7%, Table No. 14), suggesting that migration has generally reinforced rather than weakened kinship networks between the place of origin and the place of destination. Among the aspects of life most visibly affected by migration, access to education stands out, with 79.8 percent of households reporting improvement (Table No. 18), indicating a tangible social benefit for migrant families. By contrast, comparatively few households reported a change in culture (16.9%), suggesting that migrant households have largely retained their customary practices and identity rather than assimilating wholesale into a new social environment. At the same time, a bad social environment was reported as the main difficulty by 18.0 percent of households (Table No. 16), indicating that social friction at the destination remains a live concern for a meaningful minority.

Economic Impact: Migration is associated with a clear improvement in household income: the share of households earning below Rs. 20,000 per month fell from 34.8 percent at the place of origin to 12.4 percent at the place of destination, while the share earning Rs. 40,000 or more rose from 10.1 percent to 22.5 percent (Table No. 19). This economic gain, however, has been achieved mainly through improved returns within existing lines of work rather than wholesale occupational change: agriculture remains the single most common occupation both before and after migration, declining only modestly from 39.3 percent to 36.0 percent (Table No. 20). Land ownership is near-universal among migrant households at the destination (Table No. 6), which, together with the reported universal access to physical facilities such as transport, electricity,

communication, schooling and health services (Table No. 21, read with the caveat noted in that section), points toward a generally improved asset and infrastructure base for migrant households after settlement.

Quality of Life: Taken together, these demographic, social and economic effects are reflected in migrant households' own assessment of their move. A large majority report being satisfied with their current place of residence (88.8%, Table No. 15), intend to live there permanently (85.4%, Table No. 17), and would suggest that relatives come to the same place or leave the decision to them (94.4% combined, Table No. 22). These positive assessments should nonetheless be read alongside the problems that a meaningful share of households continue to report at the destination, particularly inadequate development funding (39.3%), insufficient health facilities (19.1%) and lack of employment opportunity (15.7%) (Table No. 16), which indicate that local infrastructure and service delivery in Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) have not fully kept pace with the scale of in-migration into the ward.

On the whole, in-migration into Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) appears to have had a predominantly positive impact on migrant households in demographic, social and economic terms, while at the same time placing continuing pressure on local infrastructure and services that has not fully kept pace with the volume of inflow.

CHAPTER FIVE

SUMMARY, CONCLUSION AND RECOMMENDATION

5.1 Summary

This study has examined the trends, causes and consequences of in-migration in Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu), Kathmandu, based on a complete enumeration of 89 migrant households comprising 345 persons. The main findings are summarized below.

In terms of socio-economic characteristics, the migrant population is predominantly literate (80.9%), though a marked gender gap remains, with literacy among females (66.9%) considerably lower than among males (93.7%). Migrant households are drawn primarily from the Chhetri (36.0%) and Brahmin (31.5%) ethnic groups, and are predominantly Hindu (67.4%), with a Buddhist share (25.8%) notably higher than the national average. Nearly all migrant households (69.7%) hold relatively small land parcels measured in Aana, and all 89 households reported owning some land, consistent with the municipality's requirement of land ownership for migrant status. Piped water is the leading source of drinking water (53.9%), supplemented by boring (39.3%).

Demographically, the migrant population is fairly balanced by sex (181 males, 164 females; a sex ratio of approximately 110 males per 100 females) and is concentrated in the economically active age groups, with an overall age dependency ratio of only 25.0. Among migrants aged 10 years and above, 62.0 percent are currently married. The average family size of migrant households is 3.88 persons, smaller than both the national average of 4.37 (NSO, 2021) and closely matching the Bagmati Province average of 3.89.

Regarding the causes of migration, limited infrastructure (34.8%), limited job opportunity (27.0%) and limited market access (20.2%) at the place of origin were the leading reasons households reported for leaving, together accounting for more than four-fifths of all households. The large majority of migrant households (73.0%) moved from a different district altogether, and migration decisions were, in more than half of cases (51.7%), made or influenced by near relatives, spouses or children rather than by the migrant alone.

Regarding the consequences of migration, satisfaction with the current place of residence is high (88.8%), and a large majority of households (85.4%) intend to live there permanently. Access to education is the aspect of life most commonly reported as improved after migration (79.8%), while changes in culture, occupation and food habit were reported by comparatively few households, indicating that migrants have largely retained their customary practices. At the same time, inadequate development funding (39.3%), insufficient health facilities (19.1%) and a bad social environment (18.0%) remain the most commonly reported problems at the destination.

The comparative analysis of conditions before and after migration shows a clear improvement in household income, with the share of households earning below Rs. 20,000 per month falling from 34.8 percent at the place of origin to 12.4 percent at the destination, and the share earning Rs. 40,000 or more rising from 10.1 percent to 22.5 percent. This income gain has occurred alongside only a modest shift in occupational structure, with agriculture remaining the single most common occupation both before (39.3%) and after (36.0%) migration. A large majority of respondents (71.9%) would suggest that their relatives come to Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu), and a further 22.5 percent would leave the decision to them, together indicating a broadly positive assessment of the migration experience.

5.2 Conclusion

The findings of this study indicate that in-migration into Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) is driven predominantly by economic and infrastructural push factors at the place of origin, particularly limited infrastructure, limited job opportunity and limited market access, rather than by social, political or conflict-related causes. The predominance of inter-district migration, together with the strongly family-mediated nature of the migration decision, suggests that kinship networks play an important role in directing the flow of migration toward this study area.

The consequences of migration, on balance, appear favourable for migrant households: incomes have risen markedly after migration, satisfaction with the current place of residence is high, and the large majority of migrant households intend to remain permanently and would recommend the area to relatives. The demographic profile of the migrant population, concentrated in the working-age groups with a comparatively

low dependency ratio, is consistent with migration driven primarily by livelihood motives rather than by dependents accompanying working members.

At the same time, this generally positive picture should be read alongside the problems that a meaningful share of migrant households continues to report at the destination, particularly inadequate development funding, insufficient health facilities and lack of employment opportunity. These findings suggest that while migration has, on the whole, improved the economic circumstances of migrant households, local infrastructure and service delivery in Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) have not fully kept pace with the sustained inflow of migrants, and continued in-migration is likely to place further pressure on these services unless addressed.

5.3 Recommendation

On the basis of the findings of this study, the following recommendations are made for the concerned local authorities and stakeholders:

- Development funding and basic infrastructure in Shankharapur Ward 9 (Sankhu) should be strengthened, as inadequate development funding was the single most commonly reported problem among migrant households (39.3%) and is likely to become more pressing as in-migration continues.
- Health facilities at the destination should be improved and expanded, given that insufficient health facilities were the second most commonly reported problem (19.1%) despite health infrastructure already being comparatively better at the destination than at the place of origin.
- Local employment opportunities should be expanded, since lack of employment opportunity remains a reported problem for a meaningful share of households (15.7%) even after migration, and limited job opportunity was itself among the leading reasons households left their place of origin.
- The municipality should formally confirm and document the exact year and terms of the land-ownership requirement for migrant status referenced in Section 4.1.4 of this study, so that the administrative basis for this requirement is clearly recorded for future reference and research.

- Since female literacy (66.9%) remains substantially lower than male literacy (93.7%) among the migrant population, targeted adult literacy and education programmes for women should be considered.
- Future studies on migration into this study area should collect household-level data capable of supporting cross-tabulations, such as ethnicity by occupational mobility, which the present study, based on aggregate tables, was not able to construct.

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APPENDIX: RESEARCH QUESTIONNAIRE

Questionnaire for the Data Collection of Causes and Consequences of In-Migration in Shankharapur Municipality Ward No. 9, Kathmandu District

Part I: Household Information

Section A: Introduction

District: Kathmandu
 Municipality: Shankharapur
 Ward No.: 9
 Tole: _____
 Household Family Size.: _____
 Name of Household Head: _____
 Name of Respondent: _____
 Religion:
 1) Hindu 2) Buddhist 3) Muslim 4) Christian 5) Others

Section B: Household Survey Schedule

S.N	Name	Relation to the HH	Sex	Age	Literacy Status	Marital Status	Occupation	Remark
		A	B		C	D	E	
1								
2								
3								
4								
5								
6								

* Codes for Household Survey Schedule column values are listed below under structural tables.

Code for A	Code for B	Code for C	Code for D	Code for E
1.House Head	1.Male	1.Literate	1.Unmarried	Agriculture
2.Husband/Wife	2.Female	2.Illiterate	2.Married	Business
3.Son/Daughter				Private job
4.Son/Daughter in law				Other
5.Grand child				Foreign employment
6.Father/Mother				Government job
7.Father/mother in law				Study/Training
8.Nephew/Niece				Not stated
9.Brother/Sister				
10.Other Relatives				

Section C: Socio-Economic Characteristics of Household

1	How much land is owned by the household?	1. Ropani 2. Aana 3. Paisa 4. Daam 5. Others
2	Can you tell me the main source of drinking water?	1. Piped 2. Boring 3. Well

Section D: Questionnaire for Causes of In-Migration

3	Main reason for migration to this place?	1. Limited Market 2. Limited Arable Land 3. Limited Job Opportunity 4. Limited Infrastructure 5. Government Job 6. Victim of Conflict
4	Previous place of residence?	1. Same palika 2. Other palika of same district 3. Other district
5	Responsible Person for decision making to migrate?	1. Himself/Herself 2. Spouse/children 3. Near Relatives 4. Friends 5. Employers/Neighbors
6	Did your previous place have transportation facilities?	1. Yes 2. Limited

7	Did your previous place have healthcare facilities?	1. Yes 2. Limited
8	Did your previous place have good schools/colleges?	1. Yes 2. Limited
9	Did your previous place have communication facilities?	1. Yes 2. Limited
10	Did your previous place have good electricity facilities?	1. Yes 2. Limited
11	Ethnic group?	1. Brahmin 2. Chhetri 3. Janajati 4. Dalit
12	Main occupation before migration?	1. Agriculture 2. Business 3. Foreign Employment 4. Private job 5. Government job 6. Study/Training 7. Not Stated 8. Other
13	Who mainly decided migration?	1. Self 2. Spouse/Children 3. Near relatives 4. Friends 5. Employers/Neighbors
14	Monthly income before migration?	1. Below 10000 2. 10000-19999 3. 20000-29999 4. 30000-39999 5. 40000-49999 6. 50000 & above
15	Did unemployment influence migration?	1. Yes 2. No
16	Did lack of agricultural land influence migration?	1. Yes 2. No
17	Did better education opportunities influence migration?	1. Yes 2. No
18	Did better infrastructure influence migration?	1. Yes 2. No
19	Did family networks influence migration?	1. Yes 2. No

Section E: Questionnaire for Consequences of In-Migration

20	Are you settled permanently in this area?	1. Yes 2. No
21	Has migration improved household income?	1. Yes 2. No
22	Monthly income now?	1. Below 10000

		2. 10000-19999 3. 20000-29999 4. 30000-39999 5. 40000-49999 6. 50000 & above
23	Is your current residence area satisfactory?	1. Yes 2. No 3. Same as before
24	Do you want to continue living here permanently?	1. Yes 2. No
25	Where do you like to live in near future, if no?	
26	Main problems faced after migration?	1. Inadequate development funding 2. Insufficient health facilities 3. Bad social environment 4. Lack of employment opportunity 5. Inadequate drinking water supply
27	Has migration improved transportation access service?	1. Yes 2. No
28	Is there any electricity problem here?	1. Yes 2. No
29	Do you have got any communication service problems here?	1. Yes 2. No
30	Has migration improved healthcare access?	1. Yes 2. No
31	Has migration changed cultural practices?	1. Yes 2. No
32	Has your occupation changed after migration?	1. Yes 2. No
33	If yes, what is your occupation now?	1. Agriculture 2. Business 3. Foreign Employment 4. Private job 5. Government job 6. Study/Training 7. Not Stated 8. Other
34	Has migration changed your food habits?	1. Yes 2. No
35	Has migration improved educational institution accessible?	1. Yes 2. No
36	What would you suggest to relatives/friends?	1. Come Here 2. Go to another place 3. As you like